

This translation of Book One, Second Distinction, Questions 1 and following, of the *Ordinatio* of the Venerable Inceptor, William of Ockham, is in progress. These two questions fill volume two of the critical edition of the Latin text of Ockham's theological works edited by the Franciscan Institute, St. Bonaventure, NY. These translations have been checked but may still contain infelicities or errors or perhaps omissions. Apologies in advance, therefore, and requests that readers who notice such faults would communicate them to the translator for his information and correction.

The paragraph numbers are my own additions for ease of location via the table of contents. The numbers in bold italics inside *{}* brackets that are embedded within the text indicate what volume and page number of the Latin critical edition begins at that point. So *{2.3}* means volume 2 page 3 of that edition. These numbers are not in bold italics when they are referred back to or forward to elsewhere in the text. The headings and subheadings are in the text of the critical edition.

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# THE ORDINATIO OF THE VENERABLE INCEPTOR, WILLIAM OF OCKHAM

## Book One Second Distinction

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# Ordinatio Book One

## {2.3} Second Distinction

1. About the second distinction in which the Master [Lombard] treats of the unity of the divine essence and the trinity of persons, I will ask first about the unity of the divine essence. To make it clear, and because of the many things that will be said in this book and following books, I will ask first about the identity of the divine essence with the attributal perfections; second about the identity and diversity of the divine essence with creatures; third about the unity of God.

### Question 1

#### Whether there be Identity in Every Way between the Divine Essence and the Attributal Perfections

2. About the first I ask first whether there is, from the nature of the thing, as much identity and every mode of identity between the divine essence and the attributal perfections, and between the attributal perfections themselves, as there is between the divine essence and the divine essence.

3. And it seems that there is not:

4. First as follows: contradictories are from the nature of the thing verified of the divine essence and of the attributal perfections; therefore they are from the nature the thing not the same in every way. The antecedent is plain, because this is true {2.4}: attributal perfections are demonstrated of the divine essence; and this is true: the divine essence is not demonstrated of the divine essence; therefore etc.

5. Further, the divine essence is the foundation of all attributal perfections; but no attributal perfection is the foundation of all attributal perfections, because not of itself; therefore etc.

6. To the opposite: Anselm in *Monologion* ch.17: “In the way, then, that whatever is said of the supreme essence is one, so is it in one way in one consideration whatever it is essentially;” therefore in no way is the divine essence distinct by the nature of the thing from the attributal perfections

### Scotus’ Opinion

7. To the question it is said [Scotus, *Ord.* I d.8 p.1 q.4 nn.191-207] “that between the divine essence and between the essential attributal perfections there is not only a difference of reason, that is, of modes of considering the same formal object (for there is such distinction between a wise man and wisdom, and indeed between wisdom and truth); nor is there only there a distinction of formal objects {2.5} in the intellect, because this is never in intuitive cognition unless it is in the object intuitively known.” But there is “there a third distinction preceding the intellect in every way, and it is such that wisdom is in the thing and from the nature of the thing, and goodness is in the thing from the nature of the thing, but wisdom in the thing is not formally goodness in the thing.”

8. The proof of this is because if infinite wisdom were formally infinite goodness, wisdom in general would be formally goodness in general. The consequence is plain, because infinity does not destroy the formal idea of that to which it is added, because whatever degree some perfection is understood to be in (because it is only a degree of the perfection), the formal idea of the perfection is not understood to be destroyed because of this degree, and so if it does not formally include ‘as in general’, neither does it include ‘as infinite’.

9. This is made clear “because ‘to include formally’ is to include something in its essential idea, so that if a definition were assigned of the thing including, the thing included would be the definition or a part of the definition; but just as the definition of goodness in general does not have wisdom in it, so neither does the definition of infinite [goodness] have infinite [wisdom in it]. There is therefore some formal non-identity between wisdom and goodness, insofar as there would be distinct definitions of them if they were definable. Now a definition does not indicate only an idea caused by the intellect, but the quiddity of the thing; there is therefore a formal non-identity on the part of the thing.” And they understand it thus: “that when the intellect composes this proposition ‘wisdom is not formally goodness’, it does not cause the truth of this proposition by a collative act, but it finds the extreme terms in the object, from the combining of which is the act made true.”

10. {2.6} “And the same argument about non-formal identity was asserted by the old doctors [e.g. Bonaventure, *Sent.* I d.5 a.1 q.1 ad 2] who posit that in divine reality there is some predication true by an identity that is not formal: thus must it be conceded to them that truth is goodness by identity but truth is not goodness formally.”

11. “This opinion is confirmed by the authority of Damascene [*Orthodox Faith* I.4, 9], where he maintains that among all the names said of God the most proper is ‘He who is’, because it states he is ‘a certain ocean of infinite substance’; but the others, as he says *ibid.*, state things that circumstance the nature. But that would not be the case unless there were some distinction on the part of the thing; for he is not ‘an ocean of infinite substance’ because of the fact many relations of reason can be caused about him, for they can be caused by the intellect in this way about anything.”

12. “There is a confirmation from Augustine *On the Trinity* 8.1 n.2, where he proves that in divine reality ‘two persons are not anything greater than one person, because not anything truer’. This reason would not be valid if there were only a distinction of reason between truth and wisdom {2.7} and magnitude, because the argument would not seem to be other than if were proved ‘wisdom, therefore wise’, and conversely.”

13. “For what purpose too do the doctors who hold the opposite opinion fill so many quartos, demonstrating one attribute from another, if there is between them only a difference in respect of reason? For thus would God be as equally perfectly known (with respect to any real concept) in the way he is known under one attribute, as if he were known under the idea of all the attributes; because knowledge of more relations of reason does not make knowledge more perfect, nor does it do anything toward having a more perfect real knowledge of anything.”

14. “Similarly, according to the aforesaid authority of Damascene [n.11], to what do they assign the order of attributes – as if the essence were the foundation and certain attributes were closer to the essence and certain closer to the emanations? If they are only relations of reason, what is their order in comparison to the emanations?”

15. “Similarly, Augustine *Against Maximinus* 2.10 n.3: ‘If you can understand God the Father to be simple and yet wise and good’ (and he numbers there many such perfections), ‘how much more can one God be simple and yet a Trinity, such that the three persons are not parts of

one God'. He there argues that if in a thing the same without composition and division into parts there can be many perfections simply, much more can there be three persons in the deity {2.8} without composition and division into parts. What argument would this be if the attributes only differed by a difference of reason and the persons were distinct really? For it would not follow: if relations of reason do not cause composition in something, then neither do real relations."

16. "Similarly, Augustine *On the Trinity* 15.3 n.5, says that all these are equal. But nothing is properly equal to itself. For what is it to say that something under one relation of reason is equal to itself under another idea of reason?"

17. This opinion is proved in many ways.

18. First as follows [Scotus, *Ord.* I d.8 p.1 q.4 nn.177-178; cf. d.13 n.19] a distinction of divine emanations necessarily presupposes a distinction of elicitive principles; but it does not presuppose a distinction of reason; therefore, elicitive principles are distinct by the nature of the thing.

19. Further, if no distinction by the nature of the thing precedes the distinction of emanation of persons, then one production in divine reality is not by way of intellect or nature and another by way of freedom, because no principle precedes what is of itself disposed differently to this production than to that, and these productions, in which there is a first distinction, are altogether uniform in naturalty the way they now are posited in being.

#### William of Alnwick's Reasons for the Same Opinion

20. Further, argument is made as follows [William of Alnwick, *Quodl.* q.2]: "whatever one and the same being formally is a principle of producing several suppositis of the same nature, {2.9} it is not determined of itself to a certain plurality of things to be produced. This is plain inductively both of an equivocal and of a univocal agent. Therefore if the divine essence, to the extent it is intellect and will, is one and the same formally and is a principle of producing several suppositis in the divine nature, it is not determined of itself to a certain plurality of things to be produced." The assumption is plain, "because if some one and the same existing thing formally is a principle of producing several suppositis of one nature, its productive power is not equaled by one production nor by one product," because "a productive principle that is formally one, if it have one production equal to it, does not have power at the same time for another equally perfect production, because such a principle produces a product with its whole effort and according to every degree of its activity"; but "it cannot produce another product equally perfect...therefore a productive principle formally one having one product equal to it does not have power for another production;" and consequently, if it does have power for another, its productive power is not equaled by the first production. "But the virtue of any principle of one idea formally that is not equaled by one product, will not be equaled by another product {2.10} of the same idea, nor by a third, and so on ad infinitum, since it is disposed in the same way in itself and in relation to the productive principle. Therefore, as far as concerns itself, it has power for infinites."

21. There is a confirmation: because "if the same principle produce two products in a certain order, then either by the same power or by another. If by another the proposed conclusion is gained. If by the same, then the power was not totally exhausted in the first production, nor consequently was it equaled through that production."

22. Further, "if some principle produce distinct products by several productions of the same idea, none of them will equal the power of the productive principle; therefore if it produce several products by several productions of different idea, none of them will equal the power of

the productive principle.” The consequence is plain, “because no greater power is required for producing certain things by productions of a different idea than for producing them by productions of the same idea, if neither of the productions of the same idea be more imperfect than the other productions; therefore if the power of a principle producing some supposit by productions of the same idea not be equaled through any one of them, it follows that neither will it be equaled even if they be produced by productions of different idea.” The argument then is as follows: “nothing producing by the same formally single principle has power at the same time to produce several products equal to itself in perfection, because every product adequate to the producer in perfection of entity is adequate to it in perfection of its activity;” and consequently its activity cannot at the same time extend itself to another term that is equally perfect. **{2.11}** “But God the Father produces at the same time the Son and the Holy Spirit,” each of whom is equal to the Father in perfection; therefore the Father does not produce the Son and the Holy Spirit by the same formally single principle; “but he produces the Son or the Word by intellect and he produces the Holy Spirit by will; therefore intellect and will in God the Father are not formally the same.”

23. There is a confirmation: because the will, as it is an operative power of God, cannot have two objects adequate to it, although it could have one primary object adequate to it and another secondary one virtually included in the primary one; therefore the will as it is a productive power does not have two products adequate to it.

24. Again, argument is made as to the principal point: “The Son of God is not freely but naturally produced, and conversely the Holy Spirit is not naturally but freely spirated. Hence Augustine, *On the Trinity* 5.14 n.15, ‘The Holy Spirit is for this reason not Son, because he proceeds not as somehow born but as somehow given’. But the Holy Spirit cannot be said to be freely produced because of a freedom intrinsic to his production that is not in the production of the Son, both because the productions that terminate at what is spirated and at what is said are equally natural and regard equally naturally opposite relations, and because acts of a created will are not free formally” but only by denomination from freedom of the will; “therefore the Holy Spirit is produced freely and not naturally, and the Son conversely, because the divine will is formally free and the intellect is not.”

25. **{2.12}** Besides, “productions cannot be of diverse idea unless their principles are not the same formally or their formal terms are not the same formally;” but the essence, which is the formal term of each, is one formally, therefore etc.

26. “There is a confirmation: because although productions in God are formally distinct in themselves, yet it is necessary that their distinction be reduced to some mode of non-identity in productive principles” or in the formal terms of productions, “both because they are not distinct when their formal terms and principles are removed, and because their productions are conditions and relations that are not distinguished save in presence of their terms or foundations or both.”

27. Again, “if the divine essence has power only for two productions, it is determined to them either of itself insofar as it is the same really and formally, or by relative properties, or by things in the essence that are not the same formally. Not in the first way, because that which is altogether the same really and formally is not of itself determined to diverse things” because it is not of itself disposed to be determined more to one than to the other since it is in itself disposed uniformly to both. “Nor in the second way, because relative properties of origin do not differ from their origins or they follow the acts of the origin as their foundations.” If in the third way, the proposed conclusion is gained.

28. There is a confirmation: “whatever of one idea is formally a principle of diverse productions is not of itself determined to **{2.13}** a determinate order of those productions” but either from the order of the things acted on, or from the order of the thing acted on, in receiving the form. “An example of the first: if the same object move the intellect first and the will secondarily. An example of the second: if the same fire heats and rarefies the air.”

29. Further, *Metaphysics* 8.4.1044a15-29 [verbally from Averroes’ *Commentary ad loc.*], “If the matter is one and the agent one, the effect will be one;” but divine productions are diverse and the passive subjects are not distinct; therefore there is some distinction in the productive principles.

30. Further, “if certain things be the same really and formally, whatever belongs per se to one, without connotation and without respect to what is extrinsic, belongs per se to the other, because opposites do not belong to the same thing insofar as it is the same really and formally; but something belongs to the divine intellect that does not belong formally to the will: first because the act of speaking the Word is an act of the memory, but the act of speaking the word is not an act of the will under the idea of will, because by an act of the will the Holy Spirit is produced but by an act of saying the Holy Spirit is not produced;” second because the Word is produced by act of intellect not by act of will, and the Holy Spirit is spirated by act of will not by act of intellect; third because “God by the nature of the thing understands through intellect not through will, and wills through will not through intellect, because if he willed **{2.14}** through intellect, it would follow that he would naturally will whatever he wills, just as he naturally understands whatever he understands;” fourth because the will is of itself determined to willing some object to exist, the intellect is not of itself determined to understanding that the object exist; fifth because the divine will understands evils but the divine will does not will evils; therefore they are not the same formally.

#### Against the Opinion of Scotus and Alnwick

31. Against this opinion I argue by an argument that is equally against the distinction or the formal non-identity wherever it be posited. And I argue as follows: wherever there is some distinction or non-identity, there can some contradictories be verified of those things; but it is impossible for contradictories to be verified of anything unless they, or those that they supposit for, are distinct things or distinct ideas or beings of reason or thing and idea; but if all of them be of the nature of the thing, they are not distinct ideas nor thing and idea; therefore they will be distinct things. The major is manifest, because if *a* and *b* are not the same in every way, then these are both true: *a* is the same as *a* in every way, and *b* is not the same as *a* in every way, so that being the same as *a* in every way and not being the same as *a* in every way are verified of *a* and of *b*. And in this way do they themselves concede that divine wisdom **{2.15}** is formally divine wisdom, and divine goodness is not formally divine wisdom, such that being formally divine wisdom is verified of divine wisdom and truly denied of divine goodness; and thus universally whenever there is some distinction or non-identity, there does something truly happen to be affirmed of one and truly denied of the other. I prove the minor because all contradictories have an equal repugnance between themselves. For there is as much repugnance between soul and non-soul, ass and non-ass, as between God and non-God or between being and non-being. Unless perhaps a greater repugnance be said to exist between these than between those, because of the greater perfection of some part in one contradiction than in another. But this is not to the purpose. As it is however, it is possible to infer from some contradictories that



those things of which they are verified are distinct things or distinct ideas or thing and idea; therefore universally never is the same thing truly affirmed and truly denied save because of a distinction of things or of ideas or of thing and idea. The assumption is plain, because formally there follows: *a* is and *b* is not, therefore some distinction is there of things or of ideas or of thing and of idea. An example of the first: if there is a substance and there is not an accident, it follows that they are not one thing but distinct things either in act or in potency. Similarly, if one being of reason is understood as *a*, and *b*, which is a being of reason, is not understood, it follows that they are distinct beings of reason. Likewise, if *a* is outside the soul and *b* is not outside the soul but objectively only in the soul, it follows that *a* and *b* are distinguished as real being and being of reason; therefore, as it seems, universally from the affirmation and negation of the same thing it is possible to infer real non-identity. Therefore {2.16} if the same ‘to be’ formally of wisdom is truly affirmed of wisdom and truly denied of goodness, it is necessary that divine wisdom and divine goodness import things that are not the same really.

32. This reason is confirmed, because with what reason you say that something the same can be truly denied of divine wisdom and truly affirmed of divine goodness (notwithstanding their real identity) on account of formal distinction alone, with the same ease I will say universally that to be and not to be are verified of *a* and *b* because of their formal distinction, notwithstanding that they are the same really; and so every way of proving real distinction or non-identity between anything at all is destroyed. For if you say that an ass is not rational and man is rational therefore man and ass are really distinguished, I will say that it does not follow, but it is enough if they be distinguished formally.

33. To this argument it could be said that, when something the same is truly affirmed and truly denied simply and absolutely without the addition of any syncategorematic mode, then it is possible to infer real non-identity, and so there simply follows: *a* is not and *b* is, therefore a real non-identity is there. Likewise there follows: divine wisdom is divine wisdom, divine goodness is not divine wisdom; therefore they are really distinguished or they are not the same really. But when something with some syncategorematic mode is affirmed and denied, real non-identity is not required but formal non-identity suffices. So it is in the matter at hand. For this is true: divine wisdom is formally divine wisdom; divine goodness is not formally divine wisdom:

34. {2.17} This does not suffice, because thus are these contradictory: ‘to be formally divine wisdom is not to be formally divine wisdom’ just as ‘to be divine wisdom is not to be divine wisdom’; therefore from this latter contradiction it is possible to infer real non-identity just as from the former. Or by what reason you say that from the latter it is not possible to infer real non-identity, with the same ease I will say that neither from the former.

#### The Author’s own Response

35. So, for this reason I say that divine wisdom is the same as the divine essence in all the ways in which the divine essence is the same as the divine essence, and so of divine goodness and justice; nor is there any distinction at all there from the nature of the thing, or even any non-identity. The reason for this is because although such distinction or formal non-identity could be posited equally easily between divine essence and divine wisdom as between essence and relation, because however it is very difficult to posit everywhere, nor do I believe it is easier to hold than a trinity of persons with a unity of essence, therefore it should not be posited save where it follows from matters of faith handed down in Sacred Scripture or the determination of the Church {2.18}, because of whose authority every reason ought to be led captive [I

*Corinthians* 10.5]. And therefore, when everything handed on in Sacred Scripture and by determination of the Church and the sayings of the Saints can be saved without positing it between essence and wisdom, therefore do I simply deny such a distinction possible there, and I deny it universally in creatures, although it could be maintained in creatures as in God. For thus do I believe it easy to hold a trinity of persons with a unity of essence in creatures as in God<sup>1</sup> because of any reasons whatever for the opposite, for I believe that for this present state it could be equally satisfied by reasons proving there are not three persons in one essence in the case of creatures as in God. Nor can it be evidently known that infinity makes more for the fact there are several persons in one essence than that finitude does; because, however, one is express in Scripture and the other not and it seems repugnant to reason, therefore one is to be posited and the other denied.<sup>2</sup> So I say in the matter at hand that because from what is handed on in Sacred Scripture it evidently follows that the divine essence is not formally a relation, as will be plain later [d.2 q.11, p.376], and it does not follow from these nor from the determination of the Church nor from the sayings of the Saints that the essence is not formally wisdom, nor does reason prove this, therefore I simply say that the essence is formally wisdom, and in every way wisdom, goodness etc., because {2.19} no such mediate distinction is to be posited save precisely because of what is handed on in Scripture.

36. Hence I universally say that never of any things is it verified that they are formally distinct save because of a real distinction, namely when of one of them it is truly said that it is a certain thing and of another it is truly said that it is not that thing, just as relation and essence are formally distinct, as essence and paternity, namely because the essence is filiation and paternity is not filiation; just as similarly essence and the Son are formally distinct, because the essence is Father and the Son is not the Father. Indeed, to be formally distinct is not anything else, as I hold formal distinction, and this is something of the name itself, that is that one of them is some absolute or relative thing and the other is not that thing, just as the essence is the Son and the Father is not the Son, therefore the essence and the Father are distinct formally, from the fact they are one thing, because the essence is the Father. And when it is possible to find this, then is a formal distinction to be posited, because nothing else do I call being distinguished formally; and when it is not possible, then it is not to be posited. And therefore when every thing that is essence, whether it be absolute or relative, is also wisdom and divine goodness and divine justice, therefore are divine essence and divine goodness or wisdom in no way distinct, neither formally nor in any way at all. Nor must anything be conceded of one and denied of another, neither with any sort of determination nor without determination, unless grammatical or logical mode prevent it. Because of this too must a formal distinction not be posited in creatures, because there no one simple thing is several things really distinct and any one of them, in the way the divine essence is several persons and is any one of those persons. And this is the cause why there is a fallacy of the accident here: ‘essence is the Father, {2.20} essence is the Son, therefore the Son is Father’, namely because the single essence is several things really distinct; just as there is a fallacy of the accident here: ‘man is Socrates, man is Plato, therefore Plato is Socrates’, namely because of this, that ‘man’ is truly predicated of several things really distinct. However one must, because of the impudent, note that I do not intend to say that that is the

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<sup>1</sup> This particular assertion of Ockham’s was considered novel and suspect at the Papal court of Avignon, see J. Koch, “Neue Aktenstücke zu dem gegen Wilhelm Ockham in Avignon geführten Prozess” in *Recherches de Théologie ancienne et médiévale*, VIII (1936), p.195.

<sup>2</sup> The whole of this paragraph from “although such distinction or formal non-identity...” up to “...denied” was cited at Avignon by the Pontifical Commissioners appointed to examine Ockham’s writings, Koch *ibid*.

precise and total cause, but that it is a cause along with others, about which however there is no need for discussion at present, because neither do I now intend to make clear the whole nature of fallacy of the accident.

### Objections against the Response of the Author

37. However, it can be objected against the aforesaid reason that contradictories can be held true without real non-identity, because Socrates and man are the same really and yet this is true, 'Socrates is not Plato', and this is true, 'man is Plato'.

38. Likewise man and animal are the same really and yet this is true 'man is a species' and this likewise 'animal is not a species'.

39. Likewise being is the subject of metaphysics and one is not the subject of metaphysics but a property, and yet they are one thing, *Metaphysics* 4.2.1003b22-23.

40. Likewise man and capable of laughter are one thing and yet capable of laughter is a property of man and man is not a property of man.

41. Likewise a thing as it is in God is an idea, as will be stated later [I d.35 q.5], and the same thing as externally produced is not an idea, and yet it is the same thing.

42. **{2.21}** Likewise essence as it is in the Father constitutes the Father and essence as it is in the Son does not constitute the Father, and yet it is one essence.

### Response to the Objections

43. To the first of these [2.20] I say that universally in creatures such contradictions, or affirmation and negation of the same thing, are never true save because of real non-identity. Hence these are true: 'Socrates is not Plato, man is Plato', because this term 'Socrates' supposits precisely for Socrates, and this term 'man' can supposit for Plato, and it is manifest that Socrates and Plato are distinct things. Hence just as this is true: 'Socrates and man are the same really', so this is true: 'Socrates and man are not the same really', for the first holds true because 'man' supposits for Socrates, the second because 'man' supposits for Plato.

44. If it be said that Socrates and man are the same really, not taking man for Socrates but for something common to Socrates and Plato and so of other men, and yet something holds true of Socrates and is truly denied of man and conversely, I reply that, if in this proposition 'Socrates and man are the same really' the 'man' supposit for something common to Socrates and other men and not for Socrates, that this is simply false, as will be plain later [here below].

45. To the second [2.20] by the same point, that if in this proposition 'man and animal are the same really' both man and animal supposit **{2.22}** personally, that this is simply true. And yet of these terms, even when suppositing personally, can contradictories be held true, namely that man is not an ass and that an animal is an ass, because just as this is true 'man and animal are the same really', so this is true 'man and animal are not the same really', namely because this man and that man are not the same really, and so something is truly affirmed of man and truly denied of man. Hence each of these is true 'man is running' and 'man is not running'. But if man and animal supposit simply, or one term were to supposit simply and the other personally, this is simply false 'man and animal are the same really'; and so it is not unacceptable that of them as they supposit simply, or as one supposits simply and the other personally, contradictories hold true.

46. To the other [2.20], that being, which is the subject of metaphysics, and one, which is not the subject of metaphysics, are not the same really, because thus are they distinct concepts, one of which is not the other. Nor is it the Philosopher's intention, *Metaphysics* [4.2.1003b22-23], to prove that these concepts are one thing, but that one does not signify any determinate thing supervening on being that being not be predicated of essentially and in the 'what'. However, never could these contradictories be held true of being and of one unless they were distinct things that were differently imported through one concept and through the other, such that they have distinct 'whats' of the name, or that one have the 'what' of the name and the other not. So it is about being and one, that being either does {2.23} not have the 'what' of the name or it has another 'what' of the name than one has; hence the 'what' of the name of one is that it is being undivided in itself and divided or distinct from others; but that is the not the 'what' of the name of being. And it is plain that by the 'what' of the name is imported some real non-identity, and therefore these concepts are not synonymous, and something can be truly predicated of one and denied of the rest. So it is about true and good and so on about the others, that they do not import distinct things supervening on being, of which being is not predicated essentially and in the 'what', but each of them imports some determinate being in a determinate way in which it does not import some other being. But being imports in the same way that being and every other being; and therefore in the 'what' of the name of such concept being should be posited directly and the determinate being obliquely, so that the 'what' of the name of 'true' be this 'being knowable by the intellect', the what of the name of 'good' be 'being appetible by the will', and so on of others; and so one of them is imported directly and the other obliquely. And from this it follows that there is a real non-identity between something imported directly and that which is imported obliquely; and this real non-identity suffices for this, that those concepts or names are not synonymous and that something be predicated of one concept suppositing simply and be truly denied of the rest, although sometimes whatever is truly predicated of one of them suppositing personally may truly also be predicated of another suppositing personally; just as it is in the matter at hand about being and one and true and good. Hence if these terms supposit personally, nothing can be truly affirmed of being and denied of one; and therefore, when thus taking the terms, this is false 'being is the subject of metaphysics', and this likewise {2.24} 'one is a property' or 'one is posterior to being', and so on of others. But sometimes such real non-identity suffices for this that one be truly denied of the other, and that something be truly predicated of one and truly denied of the rest, even when each is suppositing personally; and in this way do such propositions hold true: man is not of a man, and man is not men. Hence by 'of a man' is imported not only that which is imported by 'man' but also something is imported that governs what is imported by 'man'. Likewise, by 'men' is not imported any given thing in the same way as it is imported by 'man'; and universally such grammatical modes that belong both to the concept and to the name frequently falsify propositions, and frequently render them incongruous and not intelligible. And about such cases, in order to see the distinction between their significates, definitions must be taken that express the 'what' of their name, and then it will be sufficiently clear. But how such grammatical modes can belong to a concept will be clear later [d.2 q.8 p.285ff.]

47. To the other [2.20] by the same point, that this is true: man and capable of laughter are one thing insofar as they supposit personally; and so, when they do supposit personally, nothing is verified of man that is not verified of capable of laughter and conversely; but if they supposit simply, then this is false 'man and capable of laughter are one thing', because they are distinct

concepts one of which is not the other; and in this way are these rendered true: being capable of laughter is a property of man, man is not a property of man.

48. **{2.25}** To the other [2.20] I concede<sup>3</sup> that the same thing is idea and produced externally; and therefore I say that this is simply false: ‘the thing as produced outside is not the idea’, because from this follows that the thing is not the idea, which is simply false. If it be said that either the thing as produced outside is the idea or the thing as produced outside is not the idea, I say that neither is to be conceded.

49. By the same point, I say<sup>4</sup> to the final one [2.21] that this is simply false: ‘the essence as it is in the Son does not constitute the Father’ because, from the fact that the reduplication there [sc. ‘...as it is in...’] (which is a determination neither distracting nor diminishing) remains affirmative, it simply happens to imply that the essence does not constitute the Father, which is simply false.

### Response to the Form of the Question

50. From the aforesaid I reply to the form of the question, that attributal perfections are in no way distinct, by the nature of the thing, from the divine essence. But as to how they may be distinct will be clear in the following question [infra 2.50-74]

### **{2.26}** Response to Scotus’ Reasons

51. To the first reason of the first opinion [2.5-6] I reply that this consequence is not valid: ‘infinite wisdom is formally infinite goodness, therefore wisdom in general is goodness in general’, just as it does not follow: ‘infinite wisdom is really infinite goodness, therefore wisdom in general is really goodness in general’. Because, according to them [Scotus, *Ord.* I d.3 p.1 qq.1-2 nn.26-55, 130-151; ed. Vat. 3.18-38, 81-94], being states a concept common to God and creatures, and then this is true: infinite wisdom is formally infinite being; and yet this is not true: wisdom in general is formally being in general. Similarly this is true: infinite wisdom is really infinite being; and yet wisdom in common is not really being in common, because these commonalities, even according to them [Scotus, *Ord.* I d.8 p.1 q.3 n.82, ed. Vat. 4.190], are only certain concepts, and a concept, according to them [Scotus, *ibid.* n.146, ed. Vat. 4.226], is either only a being of reason, because otherwise some thing would be common to God and creatures, and it is certain that one being of reason is not really another being of reason; or a concept is really an act of understanding, and it is certain that one act of understanding is not really another act of understanding. Therefore, although infinite wisdom be formally infinite being, it is not necessary that wisdom in common be really being in common.

52. **{2.27}** To the proof [2.5]: when it is said that ‘infinity does not destroy the formal idea of that to which it is added’, I concede it; and therefore, because infinity is added precisely to concepts and is not added to any thing by saying thus that ‘infinite wisdom is formally infinite goodness’, therefore I concede<sup>5</sup> that these concepts are always distinguished and do not become one. Yet this diversity notwithstanding, this is true: ‘infinite wisdom is formally infinite goodness,’ because in this case the terms do not supposit for diverse concepts to which infinity is

<sup>3</sup> This response of Ockham’s was considered suspect in the process at Avignon, Koch *op.cit.* pp.190, 195.

<sup>4</sup> This response of Ockham’s was considered suspect in the process at Avignon, Koch *op.cit.* pp.191, 195.

<sup>5</sup> This and the following lines were cited by the censors both in their judgment and in their extracts, Koch *loc. cit.* 191, 196.

added but for the very thing that is deity, to which no infinity nor anything is added but it is infinite of itself and not by anything added. And therefore, if in this statement ‘infinite wisdom is infinite goodness’ the terms were to supposit for themselves just as in this ‘wisdom in general is goodness in general’, thus would the one be false like the rest.

53. If it be said that, when some common things are distinct, anything contained under one is in some way distinguished from everything contained under the rest, therefore everything contained under wisdom in general is in some way distinguished from everything contained under goodness;

54. There is confirmation because in the book of *Categories* 1b16-17 it is said that “of genera diverse and not in subalternate position there are diverse species and differences.” Therefore, for the same reason, of diverse common things not in subalternate position there are diverse contents; but wisdom in common and goodness in common are diverse common things, therefore they have distinct contents. Nor is it valid to say that it suffices that some contents are diverse though not all because in the case of {2.28} diverse genera and common things put in subalternate position some contents are diverse and not all:

55. To that I reply that it is not necessary, if there are some diverse common things, that anything contained under one is in some way distinct from everything contained under another, because what is in every way the same can be contained under each, according to the Philosopher in the book of *Topics* 4.2.121b29-30.

56. For confirmation I say that the Philosopher’s understanding is about diverse genera ordered in the same predicamental coordination, so that one first thing is first divided immediately into some lower things any one of which is immediately denied by another, and one or any of them is divided in the same way into other things one of which is universally denied by the rest, and so on continually. Just as substance is divided first into corporeal and incorporeal substance, and this proposition is immediate: no corporeal substance is incorporeal substance and conversely; further bodily substance is divided in the same way into animate body and inanimate body, so that the negation of one by the other is immediate; and so on continually. In a similar way, if incorporeal substance contain many genera under it, a similar division can be made; and therefore in such genera it is true that anything contained under one is distinct from anything contained under another, which it is possible to prove through a first immediate proposition in which one of the dividers of the first genus is denied by the other of the dividers. {2.29} But when the first genus is not divided properly by some two things one of which is universally denied of the other, it is not necessary that everything contained under one be truly distinguished from everything contained under the other. And this is what the Philosopher says in *Topics* 4.2.121b29-30, that when something is contained under diverse genera it is necessary that one of the genera be contained under the other or both under a third, just as he posits an example about prudence, which is contained under knowledge and virtue as under two genera, neither of which is contained under the other but both are contained under a third, namely under habit and disposition. This is also the intention of the Philosopher, *Posterior Analytics* 2.13.96a24-b14, where he teaches one mode of defining through diverse common things any one of which is in more than the thing defined, and yet the whole aggregate is equal to the thing defined; which would not be possible unless something the same were contained under diverse non-subalternate common things. Therefore I say that something one can be contained under diverse non-subalternate common things, and so deity can be contained under wisdom in general and under goodness in general as under quidditative concepts, as will be plain later [d.3 q.3, 2.419], although these common things are not subalternate, because both are contained under being.

57. **{2.30}** To the second [1.5] I say that it should not properly be conceded that infinite wisdom formally includes infinite goodness, but it should properly be said, and truly, that infinite wisdom is formally infinite goodness. And therefore I say that if infinite wisdom, which God is, were defined, infinite goodness, which God is, would not be put in its definition, but it would in every way be infinite wisdom itself. And when it is said that if infinite wisdom were definable, and likewise infinite goodness, that they would be distinct definitions, I reply that this is simply false, but there would only be one definition which would comprehend both wisdom in general and goodness in general, any part of which would be more and the whole equal.

58. And if it be impudently said that the ‘what’ of the name of infinite wisdom and of infinite goodness is different, just as the ‘what’ of the name of wisdom in general and of goodness in general is different, therefore if infinite wisdom and likewise infinite goodness had a ‘what’ of the thing, the ‘what’ of the thing of infinite wisdom would be one thing and of infinite goodness another, I say that it is a non sequitur, because properly the ‘what’ of the name is only a concept either of the word or of the sign. And therefore, because these are distinct concepts and distinct words: ‘infinite wisdom’ ‘infinite goodness’ (because these are posited as common concepts or common words to which infinite is added), therefore there can be distinct ‘whats’ of the name. But [neither]<sup>6</sup> such a distinction nor any similar one is found between infinite wisdom **{2.31}**, which would have a ‘what’ of the thing, and infinite goodness, which would have a ‘what’ of the thing; so there are not there distinct ‘whats’ of a thing but one only.

59. To the other [2.6] I concede with the old doctors that there is some predication of God by identity that is not formal nor in the ‘what’, of which sort is this predication: essence is paternity, essence is creative, and so of others. But any [sc. predication] of this sort: essence is intellect, will, wisdom, goodness (in one way taking the predicates), is formal predication and in the ‘what’.

60. To the other from Damascene [2.6] I say that he does not mean that this name ‘He who is’ is said of the divine essence in the ‘what’ and this name ‘wisdom’ is not, and yet that ‘wisdom’ is said in the ‘what’ of divine wisdom because each is said in the ‘what’ of the divine essence; but he means that, according to the propriety of the word ‘He who is’, it is more said in the ‘what’ than wise is, just, and so of others, because ‘He who is’ does not import any accident added to some other thing, even when it is taken in general. But wise, just, and so of others, when taken in general, do import some accident added to some other thing, because they are said of someone created wise and just, who cannot be just or wise save by some added accident. And when it is said further [2.6] that ‘to be states a certain sea of infinite substance’, this must be understood intransitively, namely that it is a certain sea which is infinite substance, not that it is a certain sea containing or including infinite substance or infinite perfection or infinite perfections, but it is infinite **{2.32}** substance and infinite perfection. And speaking properly neither is it infinite perfections really or formally, nor does it include or contain infinite perfections save perhaps creatable ones (if infinite ones are creatable), which contain distinct things virtually as it were, at least potentially, because it can produce them. And when it is said further [2.6] that other names do not state substance but what circumstance substance, I say that Damascene’s intention is that universally no name said of God states immediately the substance itself of God, namely such that by apprehending the name we can immediately apprehend the substance itself of God, or have a cognition proper or equivalent to God; but they state immediately some concepts predicable of God which are not God himself but circumstance the nature of God, not

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<sup>6</sup> The ‘neither’ is an interlinear addition in one ms. and omitted in others, but it seems to be implicit in the following ‘nor’.

by inherence or informing but by predication. And precisely can such concept be immediately apprehended by us for this present state and in no way the divine essence itself, according to one opinion, or no knowledge can be had proper or equivalent to God according to another opinion [Ockham, *Sent. Prol.* q.2].

61. And that this is his intention is plain from himself, *On the Orthodox Faith* 1.4, where he says as follows, “It is impossible to state the ‘what is’ in God according substance.” And he adds later, “But whatever things we assert affirmatively of God are not his nature but display things that circumstance his nature {2.33}. For although you have said ‘good’, although ‘just’, although ‘wise’, although anything else, you are not stating God’s nature but things that circumstance his nature.” From this authority it is plain that he denies universally that any name at all states the nature of God, namely because, whatever name is stated, we cannot apprehend the divine essence immediately but only some concept that circumstances the divine nature through a predication; or we cannot have a proper knowledge of God nor an equivalent one. And therefore I concede that the divine essence is not called a sea of infinite substance by the fact that many relations of reason can be caused about him, but for the cause stated.

62. To the other point from Augustine, *On the Trinity* 8 [2.6-7], I say that it happens to prove that two persons are not greater than one is, because it is not truer on account of the distinction alone of concepts, however much there is in God no distinction; yet this distinction is other than between wisdom and wise, as will be clear later [d.2 q.3, 2.82ff.].

63. And when it is said [2.7] that then ‘God would as equally perfectly be known by knowing him under one attribute as under the idea of all his attributes’, I say that the consequence is not valid, because {2.34} – according to them too [Scotus, *Ord.* I d.3 p.1 qq.1-2 nn.25, 58-60, ed. Vat. 16ff., 40ff.] – God cannot be known by us save under some concept, and yet he is more perfectly known when he is known under more concepts than under one. Further I say that there is no such order<sup>7</sup> such that one be really closer to the essence than another; yet one can be more known to us to be predicated of God or of a pronoun referring to God than can another; and for this such a distinction of concepts suffices.

64. To the last authority from Augustine [2.8] I say that he is not taking equality properly but for non-inequality. Nor yet do I say that anything under one relation of reason is equal to itself under another relation of reason; nor too is something under one concept properly equal to itself under another concept, but the same thing is equal to itself improperly, that is, it is not unequal.

65. To the first reason for the opinion [2.8] I say that a distinction of divine emanations does not presuppose a distinction of elicitive principles, neither from the nature of the thing nor a distinction of reason; but just as we see in creatures that the totally same principle is elicitive principle of diverse thing, so is it in divine reality.

66. To the other [2.8] I say that when taking liberty properly and strictly, according as it is distinct from active principle or {2.35} natural productive principle, it is not to be conceded that one emanation is by way of intellect or nature and another by way of will or liberty, because this would be to say that one person would be produced naturally and another not produced naturally but freely. But this is impossible, because properly speaking nothing is produced freely and not naturally save what is produced contingently and is able to be produced and not produced. But each person is necessarily and naturally produced, for thus from nature does the Father have to

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<sup>7</sup> Reference to the sort of order that Scotus posits between the ideas under which God is conceivable, e.g. *Rep. Paris.* Prol. q.1 n.43, “As to this article I say that there is an order between the ideas under which God is conceivable, so that the idea of essence is altogether first, and others are prior or posterior according as they are nearer to this idea or further from it,” Wadding ed. 11.12



produce the Holy Spirit as the Son, and so the Holy Spirit is produced necessarily as is the Son. However, speaking metaphorically and broadly, it can in some way be conceded that one person is produced by way of nature or intellect and another by way of will or liberty. And by understanding this as follows, that intellect and will in one way connote, in the usage of the Saints [Augustine, *On the Trinity* 9], the act of generating and spirating such that intellect means the divine essence elicitive of the act of generating and will means the divine essence elicitive of the act of spirating. And in this way can it be conceded that the Son is produced by way of intellect and the Holy Spirit by way of will. But another understanding can be had, as will be made clear later [2.45ff.]. Also, conceding with them that the Son is produced naturally and the Holy Spirit freely, and that the elicitive principle is differently disposed for production of the Son and for production of the Holy Spirit, I say that it is not necessary, because of {2.36} this diversity, to posit such a distinction between elicitive principles; because as was said in the preceding distinction [*Sent.* I d.1 q.6; 1.491ff.], the same thing totally indistinct in reality and idea can be a natural principle with respect to one and a free principle with respect to the other, and the same principle can be differently disposed to one and to the other. And so all such otherness or diversity can in this way be saved through one elicitive principle just as through several.

67. And if it be said [William of Alnwick, *Quodl.* q.2<sup>8</sup>] that opposite modes of being principle cannot belong to the same thing formally, I say that it is not unacceptable that such ways of being principle, namely naturally and freely, cannot belong at the same time to the same thing in respect of the same thing without, however, agreeing with the same thing in respect of diverse things; and perhaps it is not unacceptable that they belong to the same thing differently disposed at diverse times even with respect to the same thing, as was touched on in the preceding distinction [*Sent.* I d.1 q.6; 1.496].

#### Response to William of Alnwick's Reasons

68. To the other reason [2.8-9], when the proposition is taken: 'whatever one and the same being formally is a principle of producing several supposits of the same nature, it is not determined of itself to a certain plurality of [supposits] to be produced', I say that this proposition is not {2.37} universally true. If however it be taken that there is a principle of producing several supposits of numerically the same nature, an instance cannot be found save in the case at hand, because nowhere else can there be several supposits in a possible definite number of the same nature. But if it take that there is a principle of producing several supposits of the same nature in species and not in number, the proposition can thus be conceded, because in no species can so many supposits be produced by any agent without more being able to be produced. But if the products be of the same genus and not of the same species, such a principle can of itself be determined to a definite plurality in species, just as the sun is a principle of producing several effects in species and is determined to them of itself such that it cannot produce things other in species. So do I say in the matter in hand that, because these supposits are not altogether of the same idea without there being a greater distinction between the Father and the Son and the Holy Spirit than there would be between these persons if any one of them were Father, or any one Son, or any one Holy Spirit (as will be said later [d.2 q.11; 2.364]), therefore the same principle can be determined of itself to a definite plurality just as, according

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<sup>8</sup> "I respond and say that it is not similar, because opposite and primarily diverse modes of producing [other ms.: of being principle] cannot agree in a same principle that is the same really and formally..."

to the opinion of Avicenna [*Metaphysics* 9.4], the same intelligence is a principle of immediately producing another intelligence and the heavenly body, and is determined of itself to this plurality; so is the divine essence, existing unique, a principle of producing the Son and the Holy Spirit and is of itself determined to this plurality.

69. As to the proof [2.9], when is it taken that ‘the productive virtue’ of such a principle ‘is not equaled by one production nor by one product’ {2.38}, I say that the productive virtue’s being equaled by some production can be understood in many ways. In one way that the product is equal to it in perfection, so that it is equally perfect. In another way that the product is the most perfect it is capable of, and this can be understood in two ways: either positively, because it is more perfect than every other product, or negatively, because nothing producible by the principle is more perfect than it. In another way that the product be produced according to the whole of the virtue and the ultimate of the power and by the whole effort of the virtue. In a fourth way this equality can be understood quasi extensively, because it has power for this production and for no other.

70. In the first way I say that such productive virtue can be equaled through the first production, because the first product can be equal to it in perfection. And when it is said [2.9] ‘therefore it has no power for another production equally perfect’, I deny the consequence. For let it be posited that there is some heat that can produce in some passive subject a heat equal to itself; this heat will at the same time and once produce in another passive subject, equally disposed and equally proximate, another heat equal to itself and to the other heat. The reason for which is because the productive virtue of heat, by the fact it produces this heat, is in altogether nothing impeded from producing another heat equally perfect, save perhaps by accident, because it is in acting diminished by something reacting. And when it is said [2.9] that ‘such a productive principle produces with its whole effort and according to the whole degree of its activity’, I concede it, because the heat, in producing this heat, produces {2.39} with its whole effort and according to every degree of its perfection. For it does not act according to one degree and not act according to another degree, but according to every degree; but from this does not follow that it cannot produce another equally perfect. Thus too does the sun, according to its whole effort and according to the whole degree of its perfection and according to the whole degree of its activity, produce something more imperfect, and yet by the same virtue it is totally able to produce another not only equally perfect but also something much more perfect. So do I say in the matter at hand, that the Father according to the whole degree of his perfection and by his whole effort produces the Son, and by the same virtue and perfection he produces the equally perfect Holy Spirit. And by understanding equality in this way, the productive virtue is equaled by any product, by the first as by the second.

71. Understanding equality in a second way, and this positively, I say that a productive virtue equaled by one product does not have power for another equally perfect. But in this way is the divine productive virtue not equaled by any one production, because neither by the first nor by the second, but by the two together, namely because the two products are more perfect than all other things producible by God; and there a stand is made; nor is there a positing of a third; and this is from the nature of the thing, which is of itself determined to these. But if the equality be understood negatively, thus do I say, as before, that the productive virtue, equaled by one product, has power for another equally perfect, as was made clear about heat [2.38]. If it be said that {2.40} this will be because of diverse passive subjects, this matters not as to equality, because it is equally equaled if it be produced per se just as if it were produced in the passive

subject and conversely. And thus always is this proposition had that ‘a productive virtue equaled by one product has power for another one equally perfect’.

72. In the third way I say that a virtue equaled by one product has power not only for a product equally perfect but also power for a more perfect one, just like the sun in producing heat: its virtue is equaled, because it produces the ultimate of its power and with its whole effort, and yet it can produce a worm, which is much more perfect than heat. If it be said that this is because of diversity in the passive subject, I say that it does not alter the fact that the proposition always be true that ‘a virtue equaled (in this way) has power for something more perfect’. Similarly, if there were some will that could contingently produce diverse *per se* subsistent volitions of diverse species, that will according to the ultimate of its power could produce one individual of a more imperfect species, and consequently its productive virtue would be equaled and yet it could produce something more perfect.

73. In a fourth way I say that a productive virtue equaled by one product does not have power for something equally perfect; but in this way the divine productive virtue is not equaled by one production nor by another but by both together, and for this reason is it capable of no other intrinsic production.

74. To the confirmation [2.10] I say that these two supposits are produced by the same virtue in a certain order, namely because the first product is productive of the second product. And when it is said **{2.41}** ‘therefore the virtue was not exhausted in the first production’, I concede that neither in the first nor in the second was it exhausted, just as nothing of the sun is exhausted by the fact that it produces one or another effect. Hence that word [sc. ‘exhausted’] is a metaphorical one and said improperly. And when it is said ‘if it is not exhausted, therefore it is not equaled’, it is plain how it is equaled and how not.

75. From what has been said the answer is plain to the other [2.10-11], how the productive virtue, if it produce several things by several productions of the same idea or of another idea, how one of the products does equal the productive virtue and how it does not equal it, and how the same one can produce several products adequate to it in perfection. And when it is said [2.10], ‘every product equal to the producer in perfection of entity is equal to it in perfection of its activity’, I say that something’s being equal to something in perfection of its activity can be understood in two ways. Either because it is as equally perfect as the active principle, and thus do I concede it, because it is the same. Or because it is everything produced or producible by the active principle, and this is that nothing else can correspond to the active principle; and thus do I say that something is equal to something in perfection of entity and yet not in perfection of its activity. And so it is in the matter at hand; just as is plain about one heat producing two heats equal to it in perfection, yet neither of which is equal to it in perfection of its activity in this second way. In the first way if one product equals the productive virtue in the perfection **{2.42}** of its activity, that virtue will be able to extend itself to another term equally perfect; and so it is in divine reality. Not in the second way.

76. To the confirmation [2.11] I say that the Father has the Son as primary and adequate object, and likewise The Holy Spirit and Himself; and thus there are two there each of which is the adequate object of the divine will. And if it be said ‘therefore there are two primary objects’, it does not follow, just as does not follow: the Father is infinite being, the Son is infinite being, therefore there are two infinite beings. However, there are two supposits each of which is the primary and adequate object in one way; thus there are two products adequate in one way.

77. To the other reason [2.11] it is plain that all liberty in respect of the Holy Spirit that is not in respect of the Son, even if *per impossibile* there were the liberty there of contradiction and

contingency or indifference, could be saved by one principle formally which would be natural with respect to one and free with respect to the other, just as by two things of which one would be natural and the other free.

78. To the other reason [2.11], [it is plain] that productions are distinct in themselves, and if they require some distinction, the distinction of the produced terms suffices.

79. To the confirmation [2.12] I say that it is not necessary that the distinction of productions be reduced to some previous distinction, neither in productive principles nor in formal terms. And when it is said that ‘with their productive principles **{2.43}** and their formal terms removed, they are not distinguished’, I say that if they are removed really, it is true; however from this it does not follow that their distinction is reduced to that distinction as to a preceding one. And if they are removed by the intellect, they will remain distinct. Hence if those productions were, per possibile or per impossibile, seen intuitively, with not any person nor the essence seen, I say that such intellect would see the productions to be distinguished. And when it is said that ‘relations are not distinguished save by their foundations or terms etc.’, I say that they are distinguished by themselves formally, yet never without distinction of foundations or terms – but not as preceding them. And this is at any rate true when the relations are constitutive and essential to them, as in the matter at hand, as will be said later [d.26 q.2].

80. To the other [2.12], that something is determined of itself to diverse things can be understood in two ways. Either that it be determined to one such that it respect that one and not another, and be made proper to that one; and in this way can the divine essence, neither of itself nor of another nor in any way, be determined to two productions, because it includes a contradiction, namely that the essence be proper to each and to neither. In another way can the understanding be that it is determined of itself to diverse ones, because it of itself respects those diverse ones and each of them in the way in which it is of a nature to respect them; and thus is the divine essence of itself determined to two productions, and with this would stand the fact that it was uniformly disposed to both. For in this way is a heat, being equally proximate to diverse passive subjects equally disposed, determined of itself to producing diverse heats, and yet it is disposed uniformly to any one of them.

81. **{2.44}** To the confirmation [2.12-23] I say that no more can diverse principles be formally determined to a determinate order of productions than can the same principle formally, because between productions or products there cannot be an order save because one is part or cause of another or more perfect than another. But all those things will [thus] be able to happen if they are produced by one principle formally just as if produced by two. For thus will the same principle formally be able to produce first a part and second the whole, just as the same generative virtue first produces a part of the human body and second the whole, just as if they were distinct productive principles. Similarly, the sun by the same virtue formally illumines a part of the air and the whole air. Similarly, the same cause will be able first to produce some effect and afterwards will, along with it as with a partial cause, be able to produce another effect. So it is in the matter at hand, that the Father produces the Son and the Father and Son produce the Holy Spirit through the same virtue. And if it be asked what the cause is, I say that so it is, but this is to be held by faith alone, nor is it possible for anyone in this life to know why so it is.

82. To the other [2.13], that the authority of the Philosopher and the Commentator is to be understood of impossible forms and natural agents.

83. To the other [2.13] I concede the major, and therefore I concede that whatever belongs to the thing that is the divine intellect, belongs to the thing that is the divine will, and conversely. However some terms **{2.45}** can import the same thing principally and connote some things

distinct; on account of which distinct connoted things can something truly be predicated of one and truly denied of the rest, as was said before [2.22ff.]. And so it is in the matter at hand, that the divine intellect and the divine will, that is these terms, connote in a determinate grammatical or logical way some distinct things, according to the use of the Saints and the Doctors [2.35]; therefore can something belong to one and not to the other.

84. Hereby to the first proof [2.13]: if it should be conceded that the act of saying is an act of memory and not an act of will, it ought to be conceded under this understanding that the act of saying is an act of memory, that is, an act elicited, by the divine essence, as an act of generating, so that the memory imports all this latter, namely the divine essence eliciting an act of generating, and the will imports all the former, namely the essence productive of the act of spirating. And so from the mode of signifying, according to the use of speakers, it would follow that if the act of generating were an act of will, that it would be the act by which the essence is elicitive of the act of spirating, and so it would be the act of spirating, because the act of spirating is the principle of spirating the Holy Spirit. Similarly, I say that God understands through the intellect and through the thing that is formally and really the will; yet he is said not to understand through the will, because not everything that he understands does he will through the will; and what be the cause of this will be said later [2.47ff.].

85. **{2.46}** If it be said [William of Alnwick, *Quodl.* q.2] that by circumscribing all such connoted terms and by speaking precisely of the thing itself, this is true: the act of saying is an act of memory and not an act of will. And similarly [Alnwick, *ibid.*]: God understands by intellect and not by will, therefore in the thing itself there is some sort of non-identity:

86. I say that by circumscribing everything connoted, so that by these names ‘intellect’, ‘will’, ‘to understand’, ‘to will’, nothing be connoted, but by this noun ‘intellect’ be precisely signified the thing that is formally intellect, and by this noun ‘will’ precisely the absolute thing which is formally will, and so of other names and, by this new institution of vocabulary thus made, no more will this statement be true ‘the act of saying is an act of will’, and ‘God understands by will’, as this [will be true] ‘he understands by intellect’, because then the terms are instituted in a new way for signifying, and so there is no wonder if that proposition be true which before was false.

87. If it be said: I will to circumscribe everything connoted without a new institution of spoken word, I reply that this is not possible. Hence if this sound ‘men’ were precisely to signify that which this name ‘man’ signifies, and no other grammatical mode were had, namely that there would be no more of plural number than ‘man’, and so of other grammatical modes (which it would be very **{2.47}** possible to institute de novo for signifying), and with this institution in place, this sentence ‘man is men’ would be as true as this ‘man is man’.

88. If you say: I do not wish to speak of words but only of things, I say that although you wish to speak only of things, yet this is only possible by the mediation of vocal words or concepts or other signs; and therefore according as those signs, whatever they may have been, signify and connote or do not connote differently, reply must be made differently to the propositions in the aforesaid way.

89. By the same point is plain the answer to the other proof [2.14], that God understands evils and does not will them, not because of some distinction or non-identity on the part of God, but because of non-identity on the part of the creature, just as God beatifies Peter and does not damn Peter; this is not because of some formal distinction between the divine beatifying and damning power, but because of a distinction between eternal punishment and eternal life, because by this ‘God beatifies Peter’ is imported all this ‘God gives Peter eternal life’; and by this ‘God does not

damn Peter' is denoted all of this 'God does not punish Peter with eternal punishment'. And thus can they be verified, without any distinction on God's part, because of non-identity or variation on the creature's part, because by the same virtue in every way does God give Peter eternal life and does not give him eternal punishment. Similarly, God can create some things {2.48} and not create those; from this does not follow that being able to create and creating are formally distinct in God. So in the matter at hand: God wills *a*; by this is imported that *a* be; but this is not imported by this statement: God understands *a*; and therefore these can be verified without any non-identity of God, as also this one: God can create *a*, God does not create *a*. Similarly, by this one 'God wills evil' is imported the whole of this one 'God makes something that he should not', and consequently by this very fact is imported that he is a creature, such that by doing of evil is imported a thing that does something it should not, which can belong only to a creature. But by this statement 'God understands evil' is only imported that God does or permits something to be done by some creature that should not do it. And thus is something else connoted by one and by the other; and because of this can these, without any non-identity on the part of God, be verified.

90. By the same point is it plain how, without any non-identity on the part of God, these can be verified: whatever God understands he naturally understands, not whatever God wills does he naturally will; because whatever God understands necessarily is something, whether real being or being of reason, that in a way agreeable to him either is or can be, and yet not whatever God wills does he necessarily put into existence, and so he does not necessarily nor naturally will it. In the same way can other like propositions that seem contradictory be conceded, which however {2.49}, according to the truth of the thing, are not, on account of such connotation, contradictory. And this is what the Master says [Lombard, *Sent.* I d.35 chs.1-4], that God, because of diverse effects, has been allotted divers words, as providence, predestination, foreknowledge, and so of others. And because of such diverse connotation it is conceded that God predestines some, and some he foreknows and does not predestinate, and so of others, without any non-identity on the part of God. And therefore, if these words 'to understand', 'to will', and so of others were not connotative but precisely any one of them would import that absolute thing that is God without any connotation, no more would this be true 'God understands evils' than this 'God wills evils'.

### Response to the Principal Arguments

91. To the principal argument [2.3-4] I say that attributal perfections that are demonstrated of the divine essence are not really the divine essence itself, as will be plain in the following question [2.55-74].

92. To the second [2.4] I say that the divine essence is not the foundation of the attributal perfections that are really the divine essence itself.

## Question 2

### Whether the Attributal Perfections are the Divine Essence Itself

1. {2.50} On the supposition that the attributal perfections are not distinct by the nature of the thing from the divine essence, with which they are the same really, I ask whether they are really the divine essence itself.

2. It seems that they are:

3. Because the intellect is really the divine essence itself, and likewise the will; and these are attributal perfections; therefore etc. The major is manifest because otherwise God would not really be intelligent and volitional, which is manifestly false. The minor is plain, because these are attributed to God from creatures.

4. To the opposite:

5. Attributal perfections are several; therefore if they are in no way distinct by the nature of the thing from the divine essence and are really the divine essence, it follows that the divine essence is multipliable.

#### Opinion of Godfrey of Fontaines and Others

6. As to this question there is an opinion of many people [Thomas Aquinas, *Sent.* I d.2 q.1 aa.2-3, *ST* Ia q.13 a.4; Richard of Middleton, *Sent.* I d.2 a.1 qq.2-4; Thomas of Sutton, *Quodl.* II q.1, III q.1], and of everyone besides those who posit that [the attributal perfections] are by the nature of the thing distinct, that {2.51} the attributal perfections are the divine essence really but are distinct among themselves and from the divine essence only in idea. But some [Godfrey of Fontaines, *Quodl.* VII q.1] posit that this is not possible save according as the intellect compares the divine essence itself to things really distinct in creatures. Hence they say that every plurality as to idea requires three things: namely a thing concerning which there is such a plurality, as the foundation of such ideas, lest the intellect that apprehends such things be vain; second that such diversity does not belong to the thing in its real being but according as it falls under the apprehension of the intellect, therefore apprehension of it by the intellect is required; third some real diversity is required with which that one thing may be compared, because the idea of one thing according as it is considered in itself is only one. Hence, although this difference of attributes be contained virtually in the divine essence that comprehends the perfections of all things, yet it cannot be reduced to act by an operation of the intellect unless it be taken in comparison to diverse things; but the attributes are not taken according to such comparison according to the relation of agent cause, but according to relation of eminence.

7. And that many things cannot be distinguished in idea in God save by comparison to many things outside him is proved first as follows: That which is in itself one most simple thing, if it be considered in itself only as it is one most simple thing, must thus {2.52} be considered according to one most simple idea; if therefore things many in idea must be considered in it, this will be by considering it in comparison to many things outside it.

8. Second, because this distinction of attributes is taken either on the part of the attributes themselves taken in themselves and absolutely, or from the comparison of the intellect comparing them to each other. The first cannot be granted, because things that, of themselves and in their nature taken absolutely, are really diverse are also in their nature diverse; but such diversity cannot exist in God between absolutes of the sort the attributes are. Therefore neither can the second be granted, because that which presupposes a distinction of attributes in idea cannot be the cause or idea of such distinction, because a cause does not presuppose that of which it is the cause but conversely. But the comparison of attributes with each other by the operation of the intellect comparing them with each other presupposes the distinction of the attributes that are compared; therefore a distinction of attributes in idea cannot come from the comparison of them with each other.

9. Third because in creatures the idea of genus and the idea of difference, which are only different in idea, are taken from diverse things in comparison with diverse things; therefore, by similarity, the difference of idea between attributes is taken from comparison to diverse things.

10. Fourth because just as attributes differ in God by reason alone so also do the Ideas; nor do they differ save in this, that the Ideas state {2.53} exemplar and representative forms according to a certain limited and determined degree, according to which diverse imitabilities are considered in God whereby the divine essence is imitable by creatures; now attributes import the perfections of all beings absolutely and without limitation; but in this they agree, that on this side and that there is only a difference of reason. But a difference of reason between Ideas is taken from a comparison to diverse creatures according to diverse degrees of imitability; therefore also a difference of reason between attributes will be taken from a comparison of God to the diverse perfections found in creatures insofar as these are taken absolutely and without limitation, as justice is and wisdom and so on of others.

#### Opinion of Henry of Ghent

11. Now others [Henry of Ghent, *Quodl.* V q.1] posit the same conclusion, that the attributes are the divine essence itself really, distinct by reason alone. But this distinction is not taken from a comparison with other diverse things really in creatures, just as the distinction of reason in Ideas can not be posited save by comparison with diverse things in creatures, because then, just as an Ideal reason is not in God save because there is something correspondent in the creature, so goodness or wisdom would not be said to be in God save because there is goodness or wisdom in the creature, which is manifestly false.

12. Besides, {2.54} goodness or wisdom are equally something absolute by respect to creatures as are very substance or spirit; therefore just as substance or spirit is not from a respect to creatures, so neither is wise or good.

13. They say therefore that the attributes differ by mere respects of reason not outwardly but inwardly, just as the divine persons are distinguished by real relations not outwardly but inwardly.

#### Against All these Opinions in General

14. Against these opinions: first I will argue in general against the conclusion which they hold in common, that the divine attributes are really the divine essence itself and are distinct in idea only; secondly I will argue against the opinions specifically.

15. Against the first I argue as follows: if these attributal ideas are distinct in God, either they are in God formally and subjectively or they are in God only objectively. If in the first way, and everything such is extrinsic to the operation of the intellect and is from the nature of the thing, then these distinct attributal ideas are in God from the nature of the thing and consequently are distinct from the nature of the thing. If in the second way, and that which only has objective being is not really the divine essence, then these distinct ideas are not the divine essence itself. Similarly, in this way they are precisely in the intellect and not in {2.55} the essence, because according to them [Henry of Ghent] it belongs to the intellect to have something in objective being and not in being of essence save under the idea of the intellect; therefore, according to them, it should more be said that the intellect forms these ideas about itself than about the



essence. Likewise, in this way are creatures themselves in God. Likewise, then neither wisdom nor goodness etc. would be in God from the nature of the thing.

16. This reason is confirmed because those things that are contained under what first divides something common are more distinguished than things contained under what divides second; but being is first divided into real being and being of reason; therefore real being and being of reason are more distinguished than two real beings; therefore nothing that precisely has objective being is really some real being, and consequently, if these attributes have only objective being and consequently are beings of reason, they cannot be really the divine essence itself.

17. Besides, the intellect either forms these attributal ideas or finds them in the thing. If in the first way, it also does not form them in real being, because then they would be really produced; therefore it forms them precisely in being of reason; therefore they are precisely beings of reason; therefore they are not a thing outside the soul. If it finds them in the thing, then the intellect does nothing more for attributal ideas than for the divine essence itself.

18. {2.56} Third as follows: when it is said [Aquinas, *Sent.* I d.2 q.1 a.2 resp.], “the idea of wisdom is one thing, and the idea of goodness is another,” either the idea there supposits for the thing outside the soul or for some being of reason. If in the first way, then if there be one idea of wisdom and another idea of goodness, there will necessarily be one thing of wisdom and another thing of goodness, and so they will be distinct things. If in the second way, then the idea of wisdom is not really in God nor is it really God; therefore these attributes are not really the very divine essence.

19. If it be said to these reasons that these attributal ideas are in God by the nature of the thing but are not distinct save by an operation of the intellect, and therefore they are really the very divine essence but are only distinguished by an operation of the intellect; hence in God by the nature of the thing there is goodness and wisdom, but the goodness is not distinguished from wisdom by the nature of the thing but only by an operation of intellect, such that the intellect causes this distinction and reduces it from potency to act [cf. Godfrey of Fontaines, *op.cit.*]:

20. On the contrary: when certain things are in every way disposed uniformly before and after an act of intellect, they are either always distinguished or never; but divine wisdom and goodness are always uniformly disposed before and after an act of intellect; for no variation is caused in them from this alone that they are understood; therefore, if they are in no way distinguished before an operation of the intellect, not afterwards either.

21. If it be said that although they are really disposed uniformly yet not according to reason, because through an operation of the {2.57} intellect a respect of reason comes to them, and by the respects of reason are they distinguished:

22. On the contrary: just as a respect of reason can come from a comparison of wisdom with goodness, so a respect of reason can come from a comparison of the essence with the essence; and thus wisdom would not otherwise be distinguished from goodness by an act of intellect than essence would be from essence or wisdom from wisdom.

23. Besides, these respects of reason are either altogether of the same idea or not. If they are, then the idea of wisdom is not more distinguished from the idea of goodness than from the idea of wisdom, because there will be of wisdom itself two respects or more respects of reason; indeed, the idea of goodness will be the idea of wisdom, because there is no greater reason why one respect should be the idea of wisdom than another; from which fact the respects are altogether of the same idea, and between wisdom and goodness before these respects there is altogether no distinction. If they not be altogether of the same idea, then in the foundations or in the terms there is not an identity of every sort, because the diversity of a relation of reason

cannot arise from anywhere else. This reason is directly against the second opinion [Henry of Ghent] although not as directly against the first [Godfrey of Fontaines].

24. Besides, these respects of reason – whether they be inward or outward – will make no distinction of reason about wisdom and goodness, just as neither do real relations about the divine essence {2.58} make any real distinction in the divine essence, because they are not really distinguished. Therefore, just as only the real divine relations or the persons constituted by them are really distinct and are not the divine essence, so only relations of reason or things aggregated from them and from divine wisdom and goodness will be distinct in idea, and not the goodness and wisdom that precede all act of the intellect. But those respects of reason are not really God, because whatever is really God is a true thing, and consequently the respects of reason would be true things and not respects of reason. Similarly, for the same reason, things aggregated from those relations of reason and from the wisdom that God is and the goodness that God is are not really God. Therefore nothing that is really God is distinct in idea from anything that is really God; and so, consequently, the attributes are not really the divine essence and yet they are distinct among themselves in idea.

25. Besides, I ask: what is it for the intellect to cause a distinction in these ideas? Either this is precisely to understand the thing, whether in one act or in several, so that altogether nothing is understood save the thing itself; or this is to compare the same thing with itself; or to compare the same thing to another thing or other things; or to form some thing or things that are not there by the nature of the thing but only by the work of the intellect. Not in the first way, because by the fact that always precisely the same thing and nothing else is understood, no multitude is there caused {2.59} save perhaps of acts of understanding, if it be understood in several acts; therefore in God there will never be a multitude of attributes that would be several attributes and yet really God himself. Similarly, for the same reason, in Socrates and in anything whatever that I can understand, I could cause many such things, which is absurd. Nor in the second way, because by such a comparison perhaps only respects of reason are caused, according to them; but a respect of reason is not really God himself. Nor in the third way, for the same reason. Similarly, in the same way can anything at all be compared with itself and with other things, just as the divine essence can; therefore every such distinction that the intellect can make about the divine essence, it can make about everything equally. If it be said in the fourth way, the proposed conclusion is got: that there are many things there, none of which is by the nature of the thing, and consequently none of them is really God himself.

26. Besides, I take those distinct attributal ideas, namely the proper idea of wisdom and the proper idea of goodness, and I ask: either the idea of wisdom is in some way distinct from wisdom itself which is there by the nature of the thing, or in no way. If it is distinct and only in idea, then there is one idea of wisdom and another idea of that idea, and there will be a process to infinity. Similarly, if they are in some way distinct, either the idea is there by the nature of the thing, and consequently the attributal idea is not in God by the nature of the thing, and consequently it is not really God. If they are in no way distinct, then {2.60} it is the same thing to say ‘the idea of wisdom is different from the idea of goodness’ and to say ‘wisdom is other than goodness’, which is absurd.

#### Against the Opinion of Godfrey and of Others in Particular

27. Against the first opinion [2.50-53]: when things are distinguished only by external relations, it is impossible to understand them without those external relations. The fact is plain

because it cannot be understood that a point is the beginning and end unless the intermediates are understood with respect to which it is the beginning and end; but it can be understood that God is wise without the creature's wisdom; therefore etc.

28. Further, according to every relation of causality and eminence, the divine essence can be compared to whiteness, because it contains whiteness both causally and eminently just as it contains wisdom; and whiteness perfects in second existence and in existing well just as also does wisdom. Therefore, on account of such comparison, God will no more be said to be wisdom than to be whiteness.

### Against the Opinion of Henry of Ghent

29. Against the second opinion [2.53f.]: because all its arguments equally prove that the attributes are not distinguished by operation of the intellect as if by relations *ad extra*. It is clear inductively: for just as in God goodness or wisdom is not by relation to creatures, so neither by operation of the intellect – [*and goodness or wisdom shows this*] no more than deity or essence [*does*].

30. **{2.61}** There is a confirmation, because every perfection simply is independent of the operation of the intellect just as of relation to any creature at all; but divine wisdom is a perfection simply; therefore it does not depend on the operation of the intellect.

31. Further, the science that is in God, and likewise the goodness, are as equally an absolute something as those that are in creatures; but those that are in creatures do not include any relations; therefore neither do those that are really God himself.

32. Further, a distinction of reason is not a prerequisite for real distinction of persons; but according to them [Henry et al.] the distinction of attributes is foundation and presupposition for the distinction of persons; therefore the [attributes] are not distinct by reason alone.

### Ockham's Response

33. Therefore I say to the question differently that attributal perfection can be taken in two ways: in one way for some perfection simply divine that is really God; in another way for something truly predicable of God and of the Three Persons together and separately. In the first way I say that there are not several attributal perfections, but there is only a single perfection there, indistinct in thing and idea, which properly and by virtue of the term should not be said to be in God or in the divine essence but to be in every way the divine essence itself. In the second way I say that there are only certain concepts or signs that can be truly predicated of God, and should more properly **{2.62}** be called attributal concepts or attributal names than attributal perfections; because properly a perfection is a thing only, and such concepts are not properly things, or they are not perfect because they are at least not perfections simply.

34. Now certain of these attributal concepts or attributal names import the divine essence itself absolutely and affirmatively, certain do so connotatively by connoting something else, and certain do so negatively. The first are like intellect and will etc. The second are like predestinating, creating or creative. The third are like incorruptible and immortal etc. And in this way are there several attributes predicable of the divine essence. And by understanding the question in this way I say that attributal perfections that can be improperly called attributal perfections (because they import perfection simply, namely the very divine essence) are not really the very divine essence, because they are precisely either concepts or names; but neither

many concepts nor names are the divine essence; therefore such attributes are not really the divine essence. Now that names are not the divine essence is manifest; and that concepts too are not is plain, because concepts do not have being without an act of intellect; but whatever is really the divine essence does not depend on an act of intellect just as the divine essence itself does not either; therefore no such concept is really the divine essence.

35. **{2.63}** Further, wherever a multitude is, there some distinction is; but the attributes according to everyone are several; therefore they are in some way distinct among themselves and also from the essence, since the essence is not posited as an attribute according to them; either then they are distinct by the nature of the thing or by reason only. If by the nature of the thing, then either formally, and this was disproved before [2.14-17], or as distinct things, and this everyone denies; similarly the proposed conclusion would then be gained, that the attributes are not really the divine essence. Nor can it in the second way be said that they are distinct among themselves and from the divine essence by reason only, as was proved against the preceding opinions [2.54-61].

36. And I prove this further as follows: nothing that is really the divine essence is distinct in idea from anything else that is really the divine essence; therefore the attributes are not distinct in idea among themselves and from the divine essence if they really be the divine essence. The consequence is manifest.

37. The antecedent I prove first as follows: being the same or distinct are properties that belong immediately to what they belong to, and consequently they belong to it when everything else is removed; therefore if something is in any way distinct from something when each of them exists in the way belonging to each, it will always be distinct from it with everything else removed and in itself; therefore if one attribute is distinct in idea from another when each of them is posited, it is distinct from it when all work of the intellect is removed; but if each of them be the divine essence really, each of them will exist in the way fitting it **{2.64}** when all work of the intellect is removed, and consequently it is distinct by the nature of the thing and not in idea alone. The antecedent is plain because, as each thing is disposed to being, so is it disposed to one and, consequently, to being distinct or indistinct; therefore as each thing that is really outside the soul is formally a being in itself and immediately and not by anything extrinsic, so will it be one and distinct in itself, and distinct immediately from anything similarly existing outside the soul from which it is in whatever way distinct (and not by something extrinsic), and consequently when all work of the intellect is removed.

38. Second as follows: identity or distinction follows the extremes after these have been posited in existence; therefore if the extremes vary in no way at all before and after an operation of the intellect, they are always uniformly distinct; but divine wisdom and goodness vary in no way at all through operation of the intellect; therefore they are not distinguished through the intellect.

39. If it be said that they do in some way vary because they do so according to being understood, and they are distinct according to being understood because now they are understood and before they were not; on the contrary: in this way can they really vary, because acts of understanding really distinct can have them as their term, and yet they will not on this account be said **{2.65}** to be really distinct. Besides nothing is distinct really from something else unless it be a thing and not an idea, or at any rate one of the distinct things must be a real thing; therefore nothing is distinct from something in idea unless it be an idea or the other one be an idea; therefore at least one of the two attributes will be an idea, and consequently it is not really the divine essence.

40. There is a confirmation, because nothing real is the same as itself or something else in idea, because it is a nothing to say that man and ass are the same in idea and not really, or that man and man are the same in idea; therefore in the same way nothing real is distinct in idea from something real. The consequence is plain, because just as whatever is the same really can be distinct really, so it seems that whatever is the same in idea can be distinct in idea, and conversely. The assumption is plain, because just as no being of reason is the same really as any being whatever of reason, so nothing real can be the same in idea as real being.

41. There is a confirmation, because just as being of reason is disposed to being the same or distinct really, so is real being disposed to being the same or distinct in idea; therefore just as no being of reason is the same as or distinct really from any being of reason at all, so nothing real is the same or distinct in idea from any being of reason at all; therefore the divine essence is neither the same nor distinct in idea from anything real, and consequently from nothing that is really the divine essence itself. And in the same way the wisdom that is really **{2.66}** God is not distinct in idea from the goodness that is God.

42. And therefore I say that the divine attributes, which are several, are not really the divine essence but are attributes, which are concepts. If the concepts be only beings of reason, then the attributes are distinct between themselves in idea alone, because they are many beings of reason, just as many real beings are distinct really. But they are distinct from the divine essence as beings of reason from real being, and therefore they are not really or formally the divine essence itself; however they are truly predicated of the very divine essence, because they truly supposit for it. But if concepts be certain real beings, as some [*infra* d.2 q.8; 2.266-292] posit that they are certain qualities of the mind, then the attributes are really distinct among themselves and from the divine essence; which however are really predicated of the very divine essence, because they truly supposit for it, just as words are truly predicated of other things from which they are really distinct. And, as to this, one should speak of concepts and of words in all respects in the same way. But if attributes be called certain attributal names, then they are distinct really among themselves and from the essence.

43. If it be asked what they are distinguished by, I reply that, whether they be beings of reason or real beings, they are distinct formally in themselves, but causally they are distinguished through what they are caused by, in the way in which they are of a nature to be caused.

44. **{2.67}** And from this is plain that it is not well said that attributes are distinguished by respects of reason; first because, as will be plain elsewhere [*Sent.* II q.1 H], such respects of reason are not to be posited; second because even if they were posited, the attributes themselves would not be distinct, because they would be certain things totally accidental to attributes and in no way of the essence of attributes, and consequently they are neither distinguished by them formally, because they would be certain extrinsic things, nor even causally, because they would not be causes of attributes.

45. Secondly it is plain that it is not well said [Aquinas, *Sent.* I d.2 q.1 a.3 resp.] that the attributes are distinct because the intellect cannot totally comprehend the divine essence and so apprehends it part by part – for the divine essence cannot be apprehended part by part but either it is apprehended totally or nothing is. Nor can it be apprehended under one real idea that is really God and not under another, but precisely are certain things predicable of the divine essence apprehended that are not in part nor really the divine essence itself; but, because of the things apprehended, the divine essence is said to be apprehended not immediately but quasi mediately. Or according to another opinion, the attributes themselves are certain intentions common to God and other things.

46. **{2.68}** Third, it is plain that it is not well said that the attributes are distinguished by what they connote [Peter Aureol, *Scriptum* I d.8 sect.23 a.2]: first because not all attributes are connotative, as will be plain in the question about the univocity of being [d.2 q.9]; second because even connotative attributes are not distinguished by what they connote, because what they connote are only certain things signified by the connotative attributes. But now it so is that signs are not distinguished by what they signify, because (whether they signify or not) they always remain distinct; for there is between this word ‘man’ and this word ‘animal’ on the supposition they signified nothing, or on the supposition they signified the same as substance and accident, as great and as equal a distinction as is the case now. And so it is not well said that they are distinguished by what they signify, but they are distinct in themselves. It is the same way about connotatives – whether they are concepts or words – that they are not distinguished by what they connote, because, supposing they did not connote, they would be just as distinct as if they did connote.

47. This opinion agrees with the statements of both the ancients and the moderns, although they deny it in diverse places [Peter Aureol *ibid.*, and a.4<sup>9</sup>]. For they themselves say in diverse places [Peter Aureol *loc. cit.*, a.2 nn.60-71; a.6 nn.189-195] that such things diverse in idea, which however are one thing, are distinct, because the one thing states something directly and something else **{2.69}** obliquely, so that they import diverse things obliquely and yet the same thing directly. And in this way do they posit that all are distinct. In like manner do some [Peter Aureol *ibid.*, a.5 n.140] posit that the attributes are distinct, because wisdom or justice connote something obliquely which another attribute does not connote but connotes something else. Now these things cannot be verified of something that is the divine essence, because it does not import anything obliquely or directly, but is rather imported; but neither does it signify directly or obliquely but rather is signified. The justice that is the divine essence is the same way: it does not connote, because it does not belong to an external thing to connote, save perhaps by institution. Therefore, it is something other than the divine essence and divine wisdom and divine goodness that is called an attribute importing or signifying or connoting something else; and those things that thus import or signify or connote, which by this very fact are not the divine essence, I call attributes.

#### To the Arguments of Godfrey and Others

48. As to the first argument for the first way of positing this [2.50-52], I say that that which is one most simple thing in itself can be considered under diverse ideas, although these ideas not be respective or connotative, as are the idea of beginning and end that **{2.70}** come together at a point, and right and left that come together at a column, because there can be certain common concepts predicable in the ‘what’ of that one most simple thing. If however that opinion meant that there were not<sup>10</sup> any really distinct things with which the divine essence could be compared, or to which and to the divine essence any things could be common, in no way could the attributes be distinguished and be attributes distinct either in themselves or from anything else whatever,

<sup>9</sup> Peter attacks the opinions of older and newer scholastics, namely Thomas Aquinas, Henry of Ghent, Godfrey of Fontaines, Gerard of Bologna, Harvey Nedellec, and Durandus.

<sup>10</sup> The printed text has ‘unless [there were]’ rather than ‘[there were] not’, which latter is nevertheless found in some mss. The ‘unless’ is hard to make sense of grammatically in the context because then the ‘if’ with which the whole sentence begins has no answering apodosis.

because, as was said elsewhere [*Prol.* q.3], from a simple thing cannot be formed diverse concepts that are simple and are proper predicables in the ‘what’.

49. Through the same point I say to the other argument [2.52] that this distinction of attributes, properly speaking and by virtue of the words, is taken from the side of the attributes absolutely and in themselves, and it does not follow from this that they are really distinct, because they are not really in God and so from their distinction no real distinction follows in God. I concede, however, that if there were some really distinct things either in or outside God, they could not be called distinct attributes. But if they were distinct and imported something that is really the divine essence, they would be purely synonymous. And so I concede that all attributes either connote some really distinct things or are common to some really distinct things.

50. **{2.71}** To the third [2.52] I concede that just as the ideas of genus and difference could not be distinct unless they were diverse things, which ideas however do not state respects to those things, so the attributes would not be distinguished and remain distinct attributes unless some distinct things were imported. Yet it is not necessary that they import respects to those things, just as animal does not import a respect to man or to ass, although it does import both man and ass.

51. To the fourth [2.52] I say, as will be plain elsewhere [*Sent.* I d.35 q.5 G], that the ideas are not distinct in God as the attributes are, because the ideas in God are the things producible by God, and they are not predicated of God in the way the attributes are truly predicated of God.

#### To the Arguments of Henry of Ghent

52. To the first argument of the other way of positing things [2.53] I say that wisdom itself (not what is an attribute but what is imported by an attribute) truly and really, without extrinsic comparison and without any previous operation of the intellect, is God himself. However the wisdom that is an attribute is not really in God, and that which is an attribute could not be unless there were some other thing really distinct. On the supposition, however, that that attribute neither is nor could be, nevertheless God would be truly wise and [by]<sup>11</sup> the same wisdom by which now he is wise. Yet this proposition which we are now forming, namely ‘God is wise’, would not be true; but the proposition in which would be predicated **{2.72}** the wisdom that God is (if a thing could be predicated) would be as true then as it is now; just as on the supposition *per impossibile* that no animal were possible and would not be seen even by the divine intellect save man alone, on this position would man then be as really an animal as he is now, because the nature of man is by this fact in no way varied, and yet this proposition ‘man is an animal’, in which a genus would be predicated of a species, would not be true, because then animal would not be genus for man. If however the animal that man in fact is were the predicate, that proposition would then be as true as it is now, but it would be another proposition because of the otherness of the term, because in one proposition a more common thing is predicated and in the other a less common one. And therefore I say that God is not wise because he is cause of created wisdom, nor because he eminently contains created wisdom, but by his very self, everything else being removed, is he simply wise and is wisdom itself. However, this proposition ‘God is wise’, in which an attribute is predicated, would not be true unless there were some created wisdom either in fact or in the divine intellect; and so the attribute would not be if there were not some possible real distinction; yet the wisdom that God is would nevertheless be.

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<sup>11</sup> The Latin is ambiguous and the noun could be ablative, in which case ‘by’ must be added, or it could be nominative in which case ‘by’ should not be added.

53. To the second [2.54] I concede that wisdom is something as absolute by respect to creatures as deity or essence itself is, and therefore {2.73} it is not more or less wise from respect to creatures than God is from respect to creatures. These attributes, however, which are not God himself but certain things truly predicable of God, would not be unless there were some creatures either in act or in potency; just as, if there were no creature either in reality or in divine cognition, God would truly be being and yet this common term ‘being’ would not be, because nothing is common unless there were in reality or in divine knowledge some several things to which it is common.

### Response to the Principal Argument

54. To the principal argument [2.50] I say that the intellect really is God, and likewise the will really is God, because in these cases intellect and will can, by virtue of the term, only have personal supposition. But when is taken ‘intellect and will are attributes’, I say that this proposition is to be distinguished by the fact that intellect and will can have personal or simple or material supposition. If personal, thus is it simply false, because no intellect, neither divine nor created, is an attribute; but the divine intellect is in every way the divine essence itself, nor is it more distinguished from the essence than the essence is from the essence; similarly any created intellect is really distinct from the divine essence, nor can it belong to it. In the second and third way is this true, {2.74} ‘intellect and will are attributes’, because then supposition is made for the concepts or names themselves, and both concepts and names are attributes because predicable and knowable of God and of all the persons conjointly and separately. And if they were to supposit in the same way in this proposition ‘intellect and will are really the divine essence’, namely if they were to supposit simply or materially, this would be simply false, because neither the concepts nor the names are really the divine essence, although they do supposit for it.

## Question 3

### Whether Something Real could be Distinct in Idea from Something Real

1. To make evident the aforesaid I ask whether something real could be distinct in idea from something real.
2. That it could:
3. According to the Philosopher, in *Physics* [1.7.190a15-18] and in diverse places [*Topics* I.7.103a6-39], some things are the same in subject and yet are not the same in idea; and some are the same in subject and idea. Therefore, some things, any one of which is real, are the same in idea, and consequently for the same reason some real things can be distinct in idea.
4. To the opposite
5. {2.75} It was proved before [2.56] that, just as no idea can be distinct really, so nothing real can be distinct in idea from something real.

### Response of the Author

6. To the question I reply, according to what was said in the preceding question [2.56], that nothing real can be distinct or be the same in idea with anything real, so that, just as distinction of reason and identity of reason are disposed to beings of reason, so real difference and real



identity are disposed to real beings, and this perhaps without excluding the formal distinction and identity where it ought to be posited.<sup>12</sup> Therefore I say that no thing can be distinct from, or the same in idea as, either itself or anything else.

7. This I prove further as follows: if the same thing were to differ in idea either from itself or from something else, this would only be because of diverse ideas fashioned about the same thing or same things, **or** because the same thing is conceived in different ways by the intellect. But the **first** does not suffice, because just as the intellect can form diverse ideas about the same thing, so can a real cause form diverse things really distinct about the same thing; but notwithstanding that about the same thing and in the same thing diverse things really distinct may come to be, never will it be said {2.76} that a thing is really distinct from itself, but that precisely the things made or the aggregates from that one thing and the two things made are really distinct; just as if in milk whiteness and sweetness come to be, never because of this will it be said that the milk is really distinct from itself, but that whiteness is really distinct from sweetness, and that the aggregate of milk and whiteness is really distinct from the aggregate of milk and sweetness; just as one composite of this matter and this form is distinct really from one composite of this same matter and one other form, and never will it truly be said that this matter is distinct really from itself. Therefore, however much the intellect fashion diverse ideas about the same thing, never will it be said that this thing is distinct in idea from itself, but that this idea is distinct in idea from that idea, and that the aggregate of this thing and this idea is distinct in some way in idea from the aggregate of this thing and that idea. And so never is any thing distinct from itself in idea because of the diversity of ideas that are not it, just as neither is it distinct really from itself because of the diversity of any of the things at all that are not it. Nor does the **second** suffice, because if some thing is conceivable in different ways, either that which is conceived is the same in every way, whether it be conceived in one way or in another, so that that which is object is in no way multiplied, neither really nor in idea, although the ways themselves of conceiving which are not the conceived thing itself may be multiplied; or the {2.77} object itself is in some way multiplied, at least in idea, so that there be several formal objects, according to the way of speaking of some persons [Scotus, *Ord.* I d.2 p.2 qq.1-4]. If in the first way, I argue as before that the thing itself is not distinct in idea from itself, but that the ways of conceiving, whether they be distinct really or in idea, are distinct in thing or in idea and the thing itself in no way.

8. This is confirmed, because just as the same thing can, without multiplication on the part of the object, be conceived in different ways by the intellect, so the same thing can, without any multiplication on the part of the object, be differently seen by the bodily eye, and differently heard, and sensed by any sense universally. And in the same way can the same inanimate thing be brought close in different ways to another inanimate thing, and yet because of this difference the thing will not be said to be distinct from itself either in reality or in idea. Not in reality it is certain; nor in idea, because even according to them [Scotus, *ibid.*, Godfrey of Fontaines, *Quodl.* VII q.1] a distinction of reason is only caused by the intellect, therefore not by the senses nor by any inanimate thing; therefore in the same way will the thing, because of the fact it is differently conceived, not be said to be distinct either in reality or in idea. If the second be granted, that the object itself is in some way multiplied so that there be several formal objects, either that multitude is from the nature of the thing or only by act of intellect. If in the first way, then it is not distinct in idea nor from the nature of the thing. If {2.78} in the second way, I argue as

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<sup>12</sup> Namely between divine essence and relations, as was said in the first question above [2.14ff.].

before, that by no operation of the intellect (whichever way it do it, whether in idea or really) can the same thing be distinct in idea from itself.

9. Therefore I say that, with the exception of formal distinction or non-identity, which is from the nature of the thing and which is very difficult to understand and is not to be posited save where faith compels,<sup>13</sup> nothing is distinct from anything save as real being from real being; and every such distinction is a real distinction, nor does it more depend on the intellect than the entity itself depends on the intellect. Or it is distinct as being of reason from being of reason; and every such distinction is a distinction of reason, which simply excludes real identity, just as a being of reason cannot be a real being. Or it is distinct as real being from being of reason or conversely; and this distinction strictly and properly is neither real nor of reason, just as neither are the distinct things either real beings or beings of reason, but it is as it were in the middle, because one extreme is a real being and the other is a being of reason; but how it should be called I care not for the present, because it rests on the will of the speakers. Or it is distinguished as an aggregate of thing and reason from real being or being of reason, or from a similar aggregate, and this distinction, like the preceding one, is neither properly and strictly real nor of reason, on account of the same reason. **{2.79}** And as I speak of real distinction and distinction of reason, in the same way proportionally do I speak of the real identity and identity of reason opposed to them.

### Objections

10. But against the aforesaid it can be argued in many ways that some things can be the same thing and yet be distinct in idea. And this is proved in many ways:

11. First as follows [Godfrey of Fontaines, *Quodl.* VII q.1]: according to the Commentator [Averroes] on *Metaphysics* 12 comment 39: “In those things that are form not in matter the disposition and the thing disposed are reduced to one in being and two in consideration.” Therefore disposition and thing disposed are one in being and consequently are one thing, and yet they are two in consideration, and consequently, if they be two, they are distinct and in idea only; therefore some two things distinct in idea are one thing.

12. Besides, the Commentator in the same place [Averroes, *ibid.* in Godfrey *ad loc.*]: “The intellect is of a nature to divide things united in being into that of which they are composed.” Therefore some things are one in reality and yet the intellect divides them, which is not possible without a distinction of reason; therefore etc.

13. Again, *ibid.*, “Multiplicity in God is only in understanding, not in being.” Therefore in God are many things that are one in being and yet many in understanding.

14. **{2.80}** Further, *Metaphysics* 4.1003b22-23, Being and one state the same thing, and yet they are distinct in some way, and only in idea.

15. In the same way can argument be made about true and good, about subject and property [Godfrey, *ibid.*].

16. Similarly, the beginning and end at a point are in some way distinct, and they are one thing.

17. Similarly, to run and a run are one thing and yet they are in some way distinct.

18. Similarly, *Physics* 3.1.201a19-23: action and passion are one motion and yet are in some way distinct. Similarly according to Aristotle and the Commentator, *Physics* 1.7.189b30-191a22: matter is the same in substance and several in being.

<sup>13</sup> *Supra* 2.17ff.; Scotus, *Ord.* I d.2 p.2, n.8 *supra*.

19. Further, ideas in the divine mind are really the divine essence itself and yet they are distinct, because otherwise they would not be several ideas any more than several essences.

20. Further, it seems that the same thing could differ from itself, because Socrates in the forum is distinct in some way from Socrates in the theatre. Similarly, according to Porphyry [*Book of Predicables*, chapter on difference], Socrates the boy differs from himself the old man. Therefore in the same way the same thing conceived under one idea {2.81} is distinct from itself conceived under another idea, and distinct only in idea; therefore etc.

21. Further, third, it seems that something is distinct from something not as thing from thing, nor as being of reason from being of reason etc., because darkness is distinct from light and from other things and yet in none of the aforesaid ways. Similarly, negation differs from affirmation and yet in none of the aforesaid ways.

22. Fourth, it seems that divine attributes are the divine essence itself, and yet, by the aforesaid, they are distinct by reason, because there is some perfection simply which in anything whatever is better it than not it [Anselm, *Monologion* ch.15]. Then I ask: either the perfection simply is in every way the divine essence or not. If it is, then there would only be but one perfection simply; likewise, it would then be nothing else to say that wisdom is a perfection simply than that wisdom is the divine essence. But if they are not in every way the same thing and there can only be the divine essence really, therefore, because there would then be some perfection simply that was not really the divine essence, there is something that is really the divine essence and yet is not in every way the divine essence; therefore it is distinct at least in idea.

### {2.82} Response to the Objections

23. To the first [2.79] of these I say that the intention of the Commentator is that there can be some names or concepts that differ as subject and predicate which are of a nature to be in the intellect objectively, because only the intellect can make a proposition besides a spoken and written proposition and the like others; and thus in the intellect there are distinct things that yet are reduced to one thing in being, as two signs are reduced to one signified thing which however are not really that one signified thing. So in the matter at hand: all things predicable of God signify only in God precisely one thing in every way the same, and yet they are not synonyms, because they have distinct significations or connotations, not in God, but outside God. And that this is the intention of the Commentator is plain, because he says in the same place [Averroes, *On Aristotle's Metaphysics* 12.39]: "So must it be understood when we say that he, namely God, is alive and possesses life, namely the same thing in subject and two in mode; not because they signify what is in every way the same, as synonymous names signify, nor as principal and subsumed do, because the subsumed signifies what signifies the principal and something more. For life signifies something {2.83} not in a subject, but alive signifies something in a subject, namely form in matter and habit in subject. These therefore are dispositions of significations of names in things that are form in matter." From this authority is it plain that he is speaking about a distinction of signifying names and about an identity of thing signified. And he means to say that some signifying names are synonymous names, in a way that names said of God are not disposed of which one is predicated of the other; some are names disposed as concrete and abstract which if they be verified in concrete things, the concrete signifies that which the abstract signifies and something else really different, the way he posits examples in the same place. But if they are predicated of God, they do not signify anything distinct in God, and this is what he subjoins in

the same place saying [*ibid.*]: “But when have been considered disposition and thing disposed in things that are not in matter, they are reduced to one intention in every way, and there is no way in which the predicate is distinct from the subject outside the intellect, namely in the essence of the thing.” From this authority is plain that he does not understand any distinction save between predicate and subject; but predicate and subject are certain names or concepts that are not really God; therefore none of the things that are really God himself are distinct in the intellect. And therefore does he say significantly that ‘they are reduced to one intention {2.84} in every way’, just as the signs are reduced to one signified thing in every way, as to which they are neither distinct in reality nor in idea. And so by disposition and thing disposed the Commentator does not understand something in God really but the predicate and subject that supposit truly and properly for God.

24. If it be said that, according to the Commentator *ibid.*, disposition and thing disposed are not synonymous names, therefore although these names ‘alive’ and ‘life’ and the like (which are common to created things wherein a real distinction is imported by concrete and abstract) would not be synonymous names on account of such distinction, yet these names ‘God’ and ‘deity’ will be synonymous, because no distinction at all is imported by these names unless there be some non-identity in God:

25. Besides, *ibid.*: “If essence has been taken according to what is posited and has been disposed by some disposition, then disposition and disposed will be one in predication and two in intention, because predicate differs from subject.” But, however, according to him *ibid.*, it is a different way in God and in composite things. And when predicate differs equally from subject in one proposition and in another, if predicate and subject be precisely names or concepts, then it should be, according to him, that in the thing itself there be a {2.85} distinction in a different way in things separated from matter and in composite things, so that in separate things there be only a distinction of reason and in the others a real distinction:

26. Besides, *ibid.*: “When the intellect composes some proposition from the disposition and the disposed in such things,” namely in things separated from matter, “then it does not understand from them names synonymous such that the proposition be according to the name and not according to the intention, but it understands that they are different according to assimilation, according to which it takes, in such things, two things whose proportion mutually of one with the other is as the proportion of predicate to subject.”

27. To the first of these [2.84] it can in one way be said that the names which we have of God, namely ‘God’ and ‘deity’, are not synonymous. Because there are some names to which correspond some simple concepts or some simple concept, and if the same simple concept correspond, the names can be called synonymous; but to some names composite concepts correspond, and it is not necessary that such names be synonymous, and this because of the distinction found in those composite concepts, one part of which distinction can belong to something to which the other part does not belong. And so it is about ‘God’ and ‘deity’: for according as they are imposed by us, {2.86} there correspond to them two composite concepts proper to God (because no simple concept possible for us is proper to God), and one part of that concept belongs to something to which the other part cannot belong. Just as ‘God’ states some intellectual or intelligent being, and likewise of other things that belong to God, so [does it state] that any of them is in the more and the totality in the equal.<sup>14</sup> ‘Deity’ however states all those

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<sup>14</sup> The sense seems to be that terms can state God both as to certain features (as ‘God is loving’, ‘wise’, ‘just’ and so on), each of which is in ‘more’ (because God is more than what any such predicate by itself says), and also as to the whole that is ‘equal’ to God, for ‘God’ – or all predicates together said of God (as ‘God is God’ or ‘God is loving

rather in the abstract; and anything abstracted from them belongs to something to which the concrete does not belong and conversely, so that a description expressing the ‘what’ of the name of deity is this: a being which is wisdom, goodness, and the like. In another way can it be stated according to the last authority brought forward [2.84], that such names, which are imposed according to the assimilation of concrete and abstract when they signify really distinct things, are not synonymous names, because they are precisely imposed according to assimilation to the latter, which are not synonymous names. And this is what he says [Averroes, *ibid.*], “that in such things he takes two,” that is, two names, “of which the mutual proportion of one to the other is as the proportion of predicate to subject.” And how this is to be understood he adds saying, “For the intellect can understand {2.87} the same thing in these two ways according to likeness to a categorical proposition in composite things just as it understands many things according to likeness,” that is, the intellect can form two concepts in which God is as it were understood, because otherwise he cannot be understood by us, and this according to a likeness to the two concepts, of which one is concrete and the other abstract, formed about a composite thing, so that, unless it found that in composite things the concrete and abstract are distinguished as to what is signified, it would not form such concepts about God nor impose such names save as synonymous names. And the reason for this can be because someone can know the significate of each word and yet not know whether one be predicated of the other, just as someone who does not know whether a being simply first be simple or composite can know what is meant by this name ‘deity’ and also what is meant by this name ‘God’, and yet doubt whether deity be God, just as he can doubt whether whiteness is white. So too someone can know what is imported by this name ‘angelic intellection’ and what is imported by this name ‘intelligence’, and yet along with this not know whether intelligence is intellection, because the philosophers [Averroes, *On Aristotle’s Metaphysics* XII t.51] posited that it was, which however according to the truth of the thing is simply false. And therefore such names in such way disposed are not synonymous names, because about synonymous names it is not possible for what they signify to be known and yet not to know whether one of them be truly predicated of the other; it is plain by induction.

28. {2.88} However, one must know that synonyms are double [Ockham, *Sent.* III q.1 BB]. Certain are synonyms because they signify and connote the simply same thing, such that nothing is signified or connoted by one without its being in the same way signified and connoted or co-signified by the other, and so for the Philosopher deity and God, man and humanity, and many such are synonyms;<sup>15</sup> but I do not take synonyms in this way here, although I so take them elsewhere.<sup>16</sup> Some synonyms are said otherwise in the first way, and besides this both those who impose and those who later use them all intend that they simply signify and connote the same thing in the aforesaid way; and in this way are man and humanity, God and deity, not synonyms,

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and wise etc.’) – names the totality that God is. The editors refer to Damascene, *Dialectica* ch.7: “All predication is made either in the more or the equal; but in the less not at all.”

<sup>15</sup> Aristotle, *Topics* 6.148a14-25: “For they are synonyms whose definition is one in name.” Ockham, *Summa Logicae* p.1 ch.6: “And I say that concrete and abstract are synonyms; just as, according to the intention of the Philosopher, these names are synonyms: God and deity, man and humanity, animal and animality.”

<sup>16</sup> Ockham, *Summa Logicae* p.1 ch.6: “But lest we proceed equivocally, one must know that the name ‘synonym’ is taken in two ways, namely strictly and broadly. Strictly are those called synonyms all users of which intend to use them simply for the same thing; and thus do I not speak here of synonyms. Broadly are those called synonyms that simply signify the same thing in every way, so that nothing in any way is signified by one without it being signified by the other in the same way, although not all users may believe that they signify the same thing but, being deceived, reckon something to be signified by one that is not signified by the other; just as if some were to reckon that this name ‘God’ were to import a whole and ‘Deity’ a part of it. In this second way do I intend to use this name ‘synonyms’ in this chapter and in many other places.”

and this because they {2.89} leave in doubt how much it depends on the imposition of these names whether this be true ‘man is humanity’ or false, and so of other cases.

29. As to the second [2.84-85], it is plain that the essence cannot be otherwise disposed save as that about which something is predicated is disposed by the predicate or as that for which some subject supposit is disposed by the predicate. And then I say that disposition and disposed will be one in predication, that is to say, will supposit for the same thing simply and yet they will be two in intention, because they will be by themselves formally two, in the way subject and predicate are two, so that they are never formally and really one but will supposit for one thing, just as this word ‘man’ and this word ‘capable of laughter’ are one in predication, that is, they are not one thing really but in the predication they supposit for one thing really. And when it is said, according to him [sc. Averroes, 2.84], that it is otherwise in abstract and in composite things, I say that it is true as to that for which the terms supposit.

30. To the other [2.85] it is plain how such a proposition is not only in accord with the name, that is the synonym, but in accord with intention and assimilation, in the way explained [2.82ff.].

31. To the second principal argument [2.79] I say that united in the thing are some many distinct things really, making however one thing {2.90} in reality, the way matter and form, subject and accident, and the like are disposed; and about such things it is true that the intellect can separate or divide them, that is, can understand one without understanding the other, although the one not be in the thing without the other or, according to the intention of the Commentator, sometimes the one not be able to be without the other, and of such things does the Commentator speak. Hence he says [2.79], “The intellect is of a nature to divide things united in being (that is, things that make one thing in being or in reality) into that of which they are composed, although they not be divided in being; just as it divides matter from form and form from the composite of matter and form.” His understanding, therefore, is only about distinct things, and this is very possible. However, that *a* and *b* are one thing, and that *a* not be distinct really from *b*, and yet that the intellect divide *a* from *b* by understanding *a* without understanding *b* or conversely, is impossible.

32. To the third [2.79] I say that multiplicity being in God can be understood in many ways: either that there be in God really and subjectively some multiplicity, and this is impossible according to the intention of the Commentator; or that there be multiplicity in God by predication, because ‘to be in’ is in one way, according to Damascene in his *Logic*,<sup>17</sup> ‘to be said of’, and in this way is multiplicity in God, that is, there are many things predicable of God. And therefore they are only in the intellect, namely objectively according to one {2.91} opinion or subjectively according to another [d.2 1.8, 2.266-292], and not in God, namely really and subjectively.

33. To the other [2.79], that being and one, if they supposit personally,<sup>18</sup> are rather one thing and one nature than that they state the same nature; and if they do thus supposit, being and one are not otherwise distinguished than being and being, one and one. But if they supposit simply or materially, they are thus not one thing nor one nature, but they state the same nature and are distinguished among themselves as two concepts or two names that are not synonyms, because they signify in different ways the same thing and nature, in the way expounded before [2.86f.]. And this is what the Commentator says [Averroes, *On Aristotle’s Metaphysics* IV t.3; Juntina VIII f.32r], that “it is necessary that being and one signify the same nature, not diverse natures.” And later he adds saying: “that they signify one essence but in diverse ways.” And later he adds:

<sup>17</sup> The Editors say they did not find a work of this name by Damascene.

<sup>18</sup> “

“to say ‘this man’ signifies one man by co-signification, and when this name ‘one’ is made explicit there will not be a difference between the two significations save because in the former ‘one’ is signified by co-signification and in the latter by explicitation.” See what his understanding is about the names, that they signify the same nature, not that they be the same nature; but how they are not synonymous names can be clear from what was said in preceding questions and partly from this question [2.23, 82-87].

34. **{2.92}** Through the same point I say to the argument about true and good [2.80], that if in this proposition ‘good and true are the same really’ the terms supposit personally, it is a true proposition; if they supposit simply, it is simply false.

35. Through the same point to the argument about beginning and end at a point [2.80], that beginning and end, if they supposit personally, that is, for that which is really beginning and end, in no way are they distinct in reality or in idea; but if they supposit for concepts or names, that is, simply or materially, thus are they distinct, nor are not they thus taken one thing, but they signify the same thing, and therefore they are verified of the same thing; however they connote distinct things, namely distinct middles. Let this be said if a point be a different thing from a line, as is commonly posited, about which elsewhere [Ockham, *Sent.* I d.30 q.2 C].

36. To the other argument about to run and a run [2.80] through the same fact, that if they supposit personally it can in some way be conceded that they are one thing; nor are they distinct in idea nor in any way distinct, no more than are to run and to run or a run and a run. But if they supposit simply or materially, thus are they not one thing but they signify the same thing and are distinct between themselves, and one is not really or in idea the same as the other, no more than Socrates is the same as Plato.

37. **{2.93}** To the other argument about action and passion [2.80] the answer will be plain elsewhere [Ockham, *Sent.* I d.30 q.2 C].

38. To the other [2.80, cf. Ockham, *Sent.* I d.35 q.5 E] I say, as will be plain elsewhere, that ideas in the divine mind are really the divine essence itself.

39. To the other [2.80-81] I say that nothing differs from itself and so, by virtue of the words, it should not be conceded that Socrates in the forum is different from himself in the theatre or in the chorus, because whether Socrates is in the forum or in the chorus, since he is not in both at the same time, there is a false implication if each remain affirmed. But if the second be negated, then, if Socrates is in the forum, this will be true: ‘Socrates in the forum differs from Socrates in the chorus’, because it will be equivalent to this one: ‘Socrates in the forum is not Socrates in the chorus, because he is not in the chorus’. And it is then true that Socrates in the forum is not really Socrates in the chorus; but from this does not follow that the same thing differs from itself unless Socrates in the forum and Socrates in the chorus were the same thing. In the same way it should not be said that white milk is distinct from sweet milk. However, on behalf of the intention of the speakers [Averroes, *In Aristotle’s Metaphysics* IV t.3, ed. Juntina VIII 32r], I say that they meant not that such propositions are true by virtue of the words, but because by these names are imported diverse things. And it is certain that chorus and forum are really distinct. And in the same way, if authors say such sort of propositions ‘white milk and sweet mild are distinct’, the understanding must be that they understand that these names import certain distinct things, because they import whiteness and **{2.94}** sweetness. In another way can they understand that these aggregates are distinct, but this is not by virtue of the words because, by virtue of the words, ‘white milk’ – and especially in this sort of proposition – does not have supposition for such aggregate but precisely for the subject.

40. And if it be said that then milk and white milk would supposit for the same thing, and consequently it would be the same to say ‘white milk is a substance’ and ‘milk is a substance’:

41. In addition, this is true: ‘white milk is an aggregate *per accidens*’; either then the ‘milk’ has simple supposition or personal or material supposition. Not simple nor material, because neither the concept nor the word is a *per accidens* aggregate of subject and accident; therefore it has personal supposition; therefore when it supposits personally, it supposits for such aggregate:

42. To the first of these I say that although they supposit for the same thing, yet because they do not necessarily supposit for everything the same, and because something is imported by one (although it not supposit for it) that is not imported by the other, therefore there is a great difference in positing one or the other.

43. To the second I reply that this proposition ‘white milk is an aggregate *per accidens* of subject and accident’ is not true by virtue of the words, because such things, by virtue of the word, only have to supposit precisely for the subject, because if they could supposit for the aggregate then would follow ‘white milk is a *per accidens* aggregate, therefore milk is a *per accidens* aggregate’, because all white milk is milk. And then argument may be made in the third figure as follows: ‘white milk is a {2.95} *per accidens* aggregate; all white milk is milk; therefore milk is a *per accidens* aggregate’. The conclusion is false and the minor is not, therefore the major is.

44. Again, when a term supposits personally, particular and indefinite convert; therefore these convert ‘some white milk is a *per accidens* aggregate’ and ‘white milk is a *per accidens* aggregate’; but this is false ‘some white milk is a *per accidens* aggregate’, therefore the other is too. From this is plain that of such terms ‘white man’, ‘white milk’, and the like, there are not some per se supposits, namely of the sort ‘this white man’, ‘this white milk’ and the like, and some *per accidens*, namely ‘Socrates’ and ‘Plato’ and the like, because a term suppositing personally, if it be a common term, supposits for its supposits, but this term ‘white man’ only supposits for Socrates and Plato and the like, therefore it does not have other supposits.

45. It must needs be known, however, that ‘per se supposit’ is taken in two ways. In one way for something per se contained under something common, which thing common is truly predicated of a pronoun referring precisely to that supposit, as Socrates is contained under man, and of a pronoun referring precisely to Socrates is man truly predicated, for this is true ‘this is a man’, referring to Socrates. And in this way such term ‘white man’ or ‘white thing’ and the like do not have supposits save these subjects, and they do not have such double supposits, namely some per se and some per accidens. And thus do I speak here of supposit per se and per accidens. In another way is a {2.96} supposit said per se of something, namely when of such personally suppositing term the common thing is verified, and the inferior to it signifies one of the signified things of that common thing – and not all if that common thing signify several things –, and also connotes something connoted by that common thing, even if that common thing connotes several things in diverse ways, which can be known by a definition expressing the ‘what’ of its name, that that lower thing in the same ways connote the many connoted things, although it not always be necessary that it connote all the connoted things; and yet of a pronoun referring to it is that common thing not predicated. And thus is this term ‘this white thing’ per se a supposit of the white thing, and this term ‘Socrates’ is not, because this term ‘this white thing’ connotes and signifies the way this term ‘white thing’ signifies; and yet this proposition ‘this is white’ is false when referring to this term ‘this white thing’, because this term is not white. And in this way did



I say elsewhere [Ockham, *Summa Logicae* p.1 ch.19<sup>19</sup>] that ‘per se in the first mode’ can be saved in many propositions. And thus can it be conceded that a common term has some supposit per se and some per accidens; but this is nothing to our purpose here.

46. Likewise, it would follow ‘white man is an aggregate per accidens, therefore man is an aggregate per accidens’, by the rule [*Summa Logicae* p.3 ch.6] ‘from a determinable taken with a non-distracting and non-diminishing determination to the determinable per se taken {2.97} is the consequence good’; and this when the terms have personal supposition and argument is made affirmatively, because, if they have another supposition or the argument be made negatively, that it follow is not necessary. I say, however, on behalf of the intention of those [2.93] who say [this], that such [propositions] are conceded not by virtue of the words, but because the terms import some two things that are aggregated per accidens and that, from the use of the speakers, supposit for such aggregates per accidens, although not by virtue of the words. And, in this way of understanding, can the following be conceded: white milk is distinct from sweet milk, white milk is not sweet milk, indeed white milk is not sweet nor milk. And thus is it plainly manifest that, when such things are conceded under this understanding, it never follows that the same thing differs from itself, but that two diverse things really are distinct. And under this understanding does Porphyry understand that Socrates the boy differs from himself the old man [2.80], namely because he has some diversity when he is boy and when he is an old man, and so the whole or the aggregates are distinct from themselves and not the same. In the say way I say that all such propositions: ‘the same thing conceived under one idea is distinct from itself conceived under another idea’, ‘a thing thus conceived is distinct from itself differently conceived’, and universally all such, are, by virtue of the words, simply false.

47. To the other [2.81], it is plain in the Prologue [*I Sent.* Prol. q.3, 1.140] how darkness and privation, and negation universally, are distinct from things positive {2.98} because namely there are distinct concepts importing the very positives and nothing else.

48. To the last one [2.81] I say that ‘perfection simply’ is taken in two ways. In one way properly for some single perfect thing including no imperfection essentially, and not necessarily having any annexed imperfection; and in this way there is no ‘perfection simply’ save the divine essence. Nor thus can any ‘perfection simply’ belong to any creature, because such ‘perfection simply’ is unique, repugnant to every creature. In another way is ‘perfection simply’ taken broadly and improperly for every concept on which it does not follow by formal consequence that that about which it is verified is imperfect; just as *a* is wise therefore *a* is imperfect does not follow formally; nor does *a* is good therefore *a* is imperfect follow, and so about many such. And such ‘perfections simply’ are many and are divine attributes and can belong to creatures and are certain concepts common to God and the creature. And thus does Anselm [2.81] understand that ‘in everything is it better it than not it’, namely because from such does not follow formally that that is imperfect about which it is verified, and from anything whatever impossible therewith it does follow formally that it is imperfect. Just as from this, that *a* is wise, does not follow formally that *a* is imperfect, and from anything whatever to which being wise is formally repugnant it does formally follow that that is imperfect about which it is verified, and thus that something is better.

49. {2.99} To the principal argument [2.74] I say that the Philosopher does not take ‘to be one in idea’ or ‘to be distinct in idea’ in the way we are now taking it in the matter at hand, but he

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<sup>19</sup> “Whence among the ancients, as I learnt as a boy, the supposit of common terms are double, namely per se and per accidens. Just as of this term ‘white thing’ the supposit per se are this white thing, that white thing, the supposit per accidens are Socrates and Plato and this ass.” Ed. Boehner p.60.

says that those things are one in idea that have one idea, that is, one definition expressing the ‘what’ of the name, and that those are distinct in idea that do not have one definition; and so such words are nothing to the purpose.

## Question 4

### Whether a Universal is a True Thing outside the Soul

1. About the identity and distinction of God from a creature the question must be asked whether there is for God and creature any common univocal essentially predicable of both. But because this question and the many things said and to be said in the following questions depend on the knowledge of univocal and universal, therefore to make evident what has been said and needs to be said I will ask first some questions about the nature of universal and univocal.

2. About which matter I first ask whether that which immediately and proximately is denominated by the intention of universal and univocal is some true thing outside the soul, intrinsic and essential to the things to which it is a thing common and univocal, really distinct from them.

3. That it is:

4. First, that it is a true thing, essential and intrinsic to the things it is common to, because according to the Commentator **{2.100}**, [Averroes, *On Aristotle's Metaphysics* 5 t.7], “these two men, the universal and particular, namely to which musical is accident, are essentially one.” But that which is essentially one with some real being outside the soul is a true thing and essential to that sort of thing; therefore the universal man is a true thing outside the soul and essential to the things to which it is common.

5. Second, that it seems it really is a distinct thing because it is impossible for the same thing to be corruptible and incorruptible; but universals are incorruptible, and things they are common to are corruptible; therefore they are not the same thing as singulars.

6. To the opposite:

7. The Commentator [Averroes *On Aristotle's Metaphysics* XII t.21]: “One and being are among universal things, which do not have being outside the soul.” Therefore, according to him, universals do not have being outside the soul; but nothing that does not have being outside the soul is the same really as a being outside the soul; therefore etc.

#### Opinion Imposed on the Subtle Doctor

8. To this question there is an opinion<sup>20</sup> that any univocal universal is a certain existing thing, really outside the soul in any singular and of the essence of any singular **{2.101}**, really distinct from any singular and from any other universal, such that universal man is one true

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<sup>20</sup> [Note by Latin editor]: In the question following [2.154] Ockham asserts that this opinion was imposed by certain people on Duns Scotus. Ockham probably had in mind Henry of Harclay, who at least implicitly did this in his *Disputed Questions* q.3 (cod. Vat. lat. Burgh. 171, ff7vb-12rb). The opinion here at any rate is not Scotus's; it is similar to the opinion of William of Champeaux, about whom Abelard in his *Epistola 1* or *Historia Calamitatum* has the following: “Now his opinion about the community of universals was of such sort as to lay down that the essentially same whole thing was in its own single individuals at the same time.” This opinion is refuted at length in Abelard's tract *De Generibus et Speciebus* (ed. V. Cousin, *Ouvrages inédits d'Abélard*, Paris, 1836, 513-518).

thing really existing outside the soul in any man, and really distinct from any man and from universal animal and from universal substance; and so on of all genera and species whether subalternate or not subalternate. And thus, in accord with this opinion, there are, corresponding to the universals predicable in the ‘what’ and in the first mode per se of any singular that is per se in a genus, as many things really distinct in that singular, each of which is really distinguished from another and from the singular; and all those things in no way multiplied in themselves (however much the singulars may be multiplied) are in any individual of the same species.

9. For this opinion argument is made in many ways, first by reasons. First as follows:<sup>21</sup> definition is first of substance, secondarily of accidents, according to the Philosopher, *Metaphysics* 7.4.1030b4-14; but definition is not first of singular substance, according to him in the same place, 7.15.1039b20-40a10; therefore it is another substance than the singular that is first definable; but it is not separate from sensibles {2.102}, because such a thing is not definable, according to the Philosopher himself in the same place; therefore it is about the essence of the singular.

10. This is confirmed, because something in the genus of substance is definable according to everyone; but the individual is not definable because, if it is, I ask what would be put in its definition? Only substance according to the Philosopher *Metaphysics* 7.4.1030b4-7; therefore some substance would be put in its definition; but not singular substance, because either the very singular definable substance, which is impossible because the same thing does not define itself; nor another one, because no singular substance is truly predicated of another singular substance; therefore it is necessary that some universal substance be put in its definition, and consequently the proposed conclusion is obtained.

11. There is a confirmation, because substance is defined by definition properly speaking, which is given by genus and difference. I then ask: either the genus is a thing or an intention. If a thing and not a singular thing (because no singular is a genus), then it is a universal thing and is of the essence of the species defined, because otherwise the species would be defined through something added, because through something that would be outside its essence. Therefore, besides the singular thing there is some other universal thing of the essence of the very singular thing. But if genus and difference be certain intentions, on the contrary: substance is not defined save {2.103} by substances, according to the Philosopher, *Metaphysics* 7.4.1030b4-14; therefore, genus and difference are substances. Likewise, then substance would be defined by an addition, because by intentions that are not of the essence of the thing.

12. There is a confirmation third, because a definition is truly predicated first of the defined thing; but it is not predicated first of any individual, because then it would not be predicated of anything other than the individual; nor is it predicated first of anything extrinsic to the individual itself, because nothing such is truly a rational animal; therefore it is predicated per se of something that is not some individual yet is intrinsic to any individual; but nothing is such save a universal thing distinct really from the individual and intrinsic to it.

13. Secondly there is argument as follows: a real science is about true things outside the soul, because by this is real science distinguished from rational science; but no science is first about singular things; so there are some things outside the soul besides singular things. The minor is manifest according to the Philosopher, *Posterior Analytics* 1.4-5.73b26-74a13 and *Metaphysics* 7.15.1039b20-1040a10.

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<sup>21</sup> A like argument is found in Henry of Harclay.

14. Third as follows: this spoken term 'man' signifies first something outside the soul, because every univocal term first has a single significate, because by this is it distinguished from an equivocal term that signifies many things equally first; but it does not first signify some {2.104} intention, because then it would be a noun of second intention. Similarly, then this would be without any distinction true, 'man is a second intention', because a spoken term must always, from its institution, supposit for what it signifies. But it is manifest that this is either simply false or needs to be distinguished; therefore this spoken term 'man' does not signify an intention first; therefore it signifies a thing outside the soul; and it does not signify first a singular thing, because it does not signify one singular before another; therefore it signifies some other thing than the singular, and not extrinsic to the singular; therefore etc.

15. Fourth as follows: the intellect can understand man without understanding any singular man; but in understanding man it understands a true thing; therefore, some true thing is then understood distinct from any singular man.

16. Fifth as follows [cf. Henry of Harclay *op.cit.*]: the first adequate object of a real power is a true thing; but the first adequate object of any power (whether sensitive or intellective) is not some singular thing, because then nothing would be apprehended by that power save that singular thing, or under the idea of that singular thing, each of which is manifestly false; therefore some other thing than the singular thing is the first adequate object of a real power. The major is manifest, especially about the sensitive power, because nothing is apprehensible by a sensitive power save a true thing; therefore nothing is the object, either adequate or non-adequate, save a true thing.

17. {2.105} Sixth as follows: the first subject of a real property is a true thing; but no singular thing is the first subject of any property, because then the property would belong to nothing save that of which that singular thing is said, according to the art of the Philosopher, *Posterior Analytics* 1.4.85a13-16b38; and consequently it would not belong to any other singular thing of the same idea, which is manifestly false; therefore a real property belongs first to another thing from the singular thing. The major is plain, because a subject is not more imperfect than its property; therefore, if the property be real, the subject will be real.

18. There is a confirmation from the Philosopher, *On the Soul* 2.7.418b7-9: transparency is present in air and water, not by reason of water alone nor by reason of air alone, but by reason of a common nature. Therefore, that nature is in both; therefore, there is some common nature in each differing from each.

19. There is a confirmation secondly in *On Generation* 1.4.319b22-24: When from air water comes to be, the numerically same transparency remains. And not by reason of matter [sc. prime matter], because then it would always remain as the matter always remains; nor by reason of the singular form, because nothing such is the same; therefore by reason of a common form; therefore there is some common form different from any singular form.

20. Seventh thus: a natural agent intends in acting a true thing; and it does not intend a singular thing, because by the reason by which it would intend {2.106} one singular it would intend another, since it as equally regards any other singular of the same idea as it regards that one, and consequently it would intend infinites; and so it would be frustrated in its intention since it could never produce infinites; therefore it intends a thing distinct from singulars.

21. Eighth thus: either the most general genus is a true thing or it is only a concept of the mind. If it be a true thing, and it is certain that no singular thing is most general (because no such singular thing is predicated of all the things contained under the most general genus, of which things however the most general genus is truly predicated), therefore it is some other

thing. If it be a concept of the mind, then since concepts could be many, it would follow that there could be several most general genera of substance.

22. Again, ninth, according to Porphyry, *Book of Predicables*, ‘On Species’ [PL 64, 111 C, in Boethius’ version]: “A collective of many is a species in one nature;” therefore a species states one nature beyond the many collected things. Similarly in the same place: “By participation in the species are many men one man;” but they are not one singular man; therefore there is some universal beyond the particulars.

23. Again, tenth, according to the Philosopher, *Categories* 2.1a20-21, “Of the things that are, some are said of a subject and {2.107} are not in a subject.” And such are not accidents, because according to him in the same place, 1a24-1b3, accidents are in a subject. Therefore, since they exist, they are substances; but not singular substances because, according to him in the same place, 1b3-4, the latter “are neither in a subject nor said of a subject”; therefore etc.

24. Again eleventh, in the same place, chapter ‘On Substances’, 5.2a10-17: some substance is first substance, and some second. First substances are singular substances; therefore besides singular substance there is another substance which is second substance, namely genus and species. And there is a confirmation, because in the same place, 2b8-9, he says that of the second substances the species is more substance than the genus. Therefore genera and species are substances, and not singular substances, because then they would be first substances; therefore they are other.

25. Besides, twelfth, *De Interpretatione* 7.17a38-39, “Of things some are universals, some particulars.” But one of the divisors is not the other; therefore universal things are not particular things, nor conversely; therefore they are other.

26. Thirteenth as follows: *Topics* 1.7.103a7-8, “Same is said in three ways: same in genus, same in species, same in number.” From this the argument goes: here is a triple real identity; but specific identity does not belong first to the individual, nor does identity of genus; therefore to some other things.

### {2.108} Against the Opinion Imposed on the Subtle Doctor

27. This opinion is simply false and absurd, so I argue against it. First as follows: no numerically single thing, when not varied or multiplied, is in several suppositis or sensible singulars, nor even in all individuals whatever created at the same time and at once; but such a thing, if it were posited, would be numerically one; therefore it would not be in several singulars and be of the essence of them. The major is manifest, because this is proper to the divine essence alone, that without any division and multiplication it is in several suppositis really distinct. The minor, that such a thing is numerically one, I prove thus: Whenever there are two equally simple things really distinct, neither of which includes intrinsic to it a greater plurality of things than the other, either each of those things is numerically one or neither is, because there is no greater reason that one of them be numerically one than the other. Or if one of them includes a greater plurality than the other, so that they are not equally simple, if that which includes a greater plurality and is less simple is numerically one, that which includes a lesser plurality intrinsic to it and is more simple will be numerically one. But universal and singular thing are for you two things really distinct and equally {2.109} simple, or a universal thing is more simple, and a universal thing does not include intrinsic to it a greater plurality of things than does a singular thing; therefore if a single thing is numerically one, a universal thing will be numerically one. The first part of the minor of this syllogism, namely that universal and

singular things are two things really distinct, is conceded by the opinion. The second part, namely that a universal thing does not include a greater plurality of things than does a singular thing, I prove: because if a universal thing includes intrinsic to it a greater plurality of things, then a greater plurality either of universal things or of singular things. Not of universal things, because I take one of those included universal things and I ask: either it includes a greater plurality than does a singular thing or it does not. If it does, I ask about one of those included things as before, and thus a stand will be made that some universal thing does not include a greater plurality of things than does a singular thing, or there will be a process to infinity. If it does not, then that universal thing, which does not include a greater plurality of things, will be numerically one just as is a singular thing, and consequently for the same reason any other universal thing will be numerically one. Nor can it include a greater plurality {2.110} of singular things, because then it would not be distinguished from singular things save as whole from part, which is impossible, even according to them, because according to them a singular essentially includes the universal and something more, and consequently a singular is the whole and a universal a part, according to them. Likewise, from this follows the proposed conclusion, because if any part at all is numerically one, the whole will be numerically one.

28. There is a confirmation because, according to them, whatever is included in the universal is included in whatever is contained per se under the universal; therefore whatever is included essentially in man is included essentially in Socrates, because whatever is of the essence of man is of the essence of Socrates; therefore never does a universal include a greater plurality of singular or universal things than does a singular, and consequently it is equally simple and consequently numerically one if the singular is numerically one.

29. If it be said that it includes many things but not as intrinsic to it, and because of this it is not numerically one, on the contrary: such inclusion or containing does not exclude numerical unity; for thus does God and matter and any cause contain many things really distinct, and yet each such thing is numerically one.

30. If it be said that the universal thing is really communicable to many things and is really in many things, but not so a singular thing; and therefore, although it not include intrinsically a greater plurality of things, yet it is not numerically one as a singular thing is, on the contrary: I ask how is it communicable to many and how is it in many? Either by identity with many things and through its own real multiplication {2.111} besides the multiplication of the things in which it is, or it itself, not multiplied nor varied in itself, is communicated to many things and is in them, from which it always remains really distinct. If in the first way, then it is not distinct from singulars but states the very singular things if it is communicated to them by identity. Likewise, there is an opposition here in the term that is communicated to them by identity, because this is the same as to say that the very things are communicated to themselves. Likewise, if they are multiplied beyond the multiplication of individuals, then there would really be as many universals as singulars, and so none of them would be universal. They also state the opposite of this [2.100], by saying that it is simply another thing not varied in itself yet existing really in many things. If it be said in the second way, namely that not being varied in itself nor multiplied it is communicated to many and remains distinct really from them, such communicability or existence in many does not exclude numerical unity; first because a matter numerically one is successively in diverse things really, nor is it more numerically one because existing successively in diverse things than if it were to exist at once in the same things without variation of itself; second because if the same form were to perfect many matters at the same time, it would no less be numerically one; third because, according to the fiction of the Commentator

[Averroes, *On Aristotle's On the Soul* 3 t.5; cf. about the fiction “of that accursed Averroes” Scotus *Opus Oxon.* II d.3 q.6 n.7], although the possible intellect be in many men nevertheless it is numerically one, because it is distinguished {2.112} really from each one of them, nor is it multiplied in itself although the men with whom it is united be multiplied; therefore in the same way, although that common man, which is posited to be really distinct, be in many singular men from each of whom it is really distinct, yet if it not be multiplied in itself but only the singular men in whom it is be multiplied, it will be simply numerically one; fourth because the divine essence, although it be communicated to distinct supposits even by identity, yet because it is in itself not multiplied but only the supposits to which it is communicated are multiplied, it is numerically one; therefore much more strongly if this common man be communicated to many so that it be in many from each of whom it be really distinct, yet if it itself not be multiplied in itself but only the single men in which it is be multiplied, it will be simply numerically one.

31. This reason is confirmed, because each thing making a number with another thing, so that it be true to say that there are many things, will either be one thing in number or many things in number, because it is impossible to have two things or three unless there be many things of which each is one in number. But for you the singular thing and the universal thing are many and several things; therefore the universal thing is either one thing in number or many things in number, and whichever is given the proposed conclusion is gained.

32. If it be said that the major is not universally true because a thing numerically one, just as number as well, is not found in all things but only in continuous things, on the contrary: this response concedes the proposed conclusion, because it can truly and properly be said in its own way that the universal thing is one in number just as that the divine essence is one in number, and just as the possible intellect that is fabricated by the Commentator {2.113} is one in number, and just as any angel is one in number, and the intellective soul according to the truth of the thing is one in number; and so consequently, since every numerically one thing is truly a singular thing, every universal thing will be truly a singular thing.

33. The whole of the preceding reason is confirmed as follows: everything that makes a number with another thing really distinct is one numerical thing or several numerical things; but such a universal thing, if it be posited, truly makes a number with a singular thing; therefore it is numerically one thing or numerically several things; but it is not numerically several things because then it would be several singular things, because according to them, and according to truth, everything numerically one is singular; therefore numerically several things are several singulars; but no universal thing is several singulars according to them, because according to them it is really distinct from all singulars, therefore it is numerically one thing.

34. The major of this reasoning is manifest because all things that make up a number are things numbered, and consequently each of them is one in number. The minor too is manifest because, for them, a singular thing and a universal thing are several really distinct things, just as Socrates and the universal that man signifies are several things, and not infinite things, therefore finite ones; therefore, two things or three things or four things, or in some definite number; and they can only be said to be two, it is certain; it is plain by induction. Therefore, here there are two things only; therefore, there will thus truly be a duality here, just as this man and this angel make a duality; therefore as truly is each of those things – pointing {2.114} to this universal thing and this singular thing – one in number, just as this man as well as this angel is one in number.

35. Again, there is a confirmation because two universals, namely universal man and universal angel, are in themselves or by something intrinsic to them two things really distinct

and not more than two; therefore each of them is truly one thing and not many, and consequently each of them is one in number.

36. All the aforesaid is confirmed because I ask for the thing signified by this term 'one in number', and it is necessary to say that either it signifies that which is one and not many, and then the proposed conclusion is gained, because any universal thing is one and not many; or it signifies that which is one and is not many nor is in many, and then the understanding, however much it were one and not many, yet if it were in many it would not be one in number; and in the same way, if this form were by divine power in several composites, it would not be numerically one; all which things are false. Or it is necessary to say that it signifies that which is one continuum and not several continua, and then an angel would not be one in number nor would the divine essence nor any intellective soul nor any simple thing; which are absurd. And from all the aforesaid it is manifestly evident that, if there be such a universal thing, it will truly be one in number, just like an angel or a soul or anything non-continuous.

37. **{2.115}** Secondly I argue as follows: everything prior to another thing really distinct from it can exist without it, but for you this [universal thing] is prior and is really distinct; therefore it can be without the singular thing. I argue in another way as follows: when a thing really distinct from other things can be without any of them separately, and this by nature, and does not depend essentially on any of them, it can be without any of them conjointly, and this by divine power; but without any singular man, according to them, that universal thing which is signified by man can really exist; therefore by divine power could that universal thing exist without any singular thing. As to this reasoning and the proposition on which it is founded, it will be made clear elsewhere [*Sent.* 1 d.9 q.3 L-M].

38. This reason is confirmed because the individual adds something over and above the nature, according to them, and this a something that makes a per se one with the universal thing, because if not then there would be something that would be neither substance nor accident; therefore it does not seem to include a contradiction that the added thing would be conserved by God without any universal nature coming to it, which seems absurd.

39. Third as follows: an individual of any species can be created new, however much the other individuals of the same species previously created or produced remain; but creation is simply from nothing, such that nothing essential and intrinsic to the thing simply precede in real being; therefore no non-varied thing preexisting in any individual is of the essence of this newly created individual, because if so, something essential to this thing would precede it and consequently would not be created. Therefore no universal thing is of the essence of these **{2.116}** individuals, because if so it would preexist every individual after the one first produced, and consequently all those produced after the one first produced would not be created, because they would not be from nothing.

40. Besides, every singular thing can be annihilated without the annihilation or destruction of another singular thing on which it in no way depends; therefore this man can be annihilated by God with no other man being annihilated or destroyed. But in annihilation nothing intrinsic to the thing remains either in itself or in anything else in real being; so there is not any such thing common to each because then it would be annihilated, and consequently no other man would remain in his whole essence and so any man whatever would be at any rate corrupted, because when every part has been annihilated the whole is destroyed.

41. If it be perversely insisted against these reasons that something is created or annihilated when anything at all in it, which is one in number in it, is created or annihilated, yet it is not necessary that the nature common to it and others be then created or annihilated, on the



contrary: creation is simply from nothing, so that nothing intrinsic and essential to the thing precede; similarly in annihilation nothing remains; therefore if anything essential to the creatable and annihilable thing precede and remain, it will not be annihilated nor created.

42. There is a confirmation, because the universal thing is as essential to the individual as is any particular part, for, according to them, Socrates is a man as essentially as he has this matter and this form; therefore, just as Socrates cannot be annihilated or created {2.117} unless this matter as well as this form be created or annihilated, so Socrates will not be able to be created or annihilated unless this thing essential to him be first nothing or afterwards be simply nothing.

43. Similarly, this common nature is more essential and intrinsic to this individual than is any matter or potency of matter to material form; but if a material form is produced in prime matter and from the potency of matter it is not created, or if the matter or potency of matter remain it is not annihilated, according to them; therefore, much more strongly, if this thing intrinsic to this individual precede or follow, it is not created or is not annihilated.

44. Likewise, with the same facility I will say that this thing will be able to be created if what is added to nature is not first a pure nothing while yet the nature itself is first a pure nothing, since both are essential to it.

45. Fifth I argue as follows: this universal or common man is either of the essence of Socrates or not. If not – and it is certain according to them that Socrates is not of the essence of the common man, because then this common man would not remain without Socrates, which they deny – therefore there are two things neither of which is of the essence of the other. I then ask: either they make something per se one, and if so then Socrates is not an individual but will be part of something per se one; likewise, he would then no more essentially be man than matter is the form with which it makes something per se one. If they do not make something per se one, and one of them is not an accident of the other, then each will be per se subsistent, and so it will be an Idea of Plato and be a per se subsistent unit {2.118} yet coexisting with many things; and many other absurdities follow (which no one of sane mind would accept) if that universal thing is not of the essence of Socrates and does not make something per se one with something.

46. If it be said that the universal thing is of the essence of Socrates and is not the total essence of Socrates, because then it would not be a thing other than Socrates, therefore it is a part essential to Socrates:

47. From this follow many absurdities. First that then Socrates would no more be a singular thing than a universal thing, because a whole is not more denominated by one of its essential parts than by another, just as a composite is not more said to be form than matter, nor conversely, although form is the more principal part.

48. Second, because then a singular thing would truly be the matter of a universal thing, and the universal thing would be the form or conversely, because the singular added thing and the universal are either of the same or of another idea; not of the same because then one would be no more universal than the other; if of another idea, and all things that are of another idea, if they make a per se one, are disposed as form and matter, then the universal and the singular thing are disposed as matter and form. If it be said that this is not true save when each of the things is singular, this is of no avail, because with the same facility I will say that when each of the things is singular there is no need that each be so disposed that one is matter and the other form.

49. Third, it follows that any accident would be truly and really composed of diverse things really distinct, namely of such universal nature and of something added to it. And universally it would follow {2.119} that there would be as many really distinct things in any singular as there

are universals univocally predicable of the same thing. Again then Socrates would be of another nature than Plato, because the things added to the universals would be of diverse natures.

50. Sixth<sup>22</sup> I argue as follows: everything outside the soul in the genus of substance is susceptible of contraries; therefore if there is some universal substance, it will truly be susceptible of contraries; but no universal is susceptible of contraries; therefore no such universal is a real thing in the genus of substance. The antecedent is plain from the Philosopher in the *Categories* 5.4b17-18, when he says that this is proper properly to substance. But that nothing such is susceptible of contraries I prove because then, just as individual contraries can be in diverse individuals of the same most specific species, so would the common contraries be in the same universal at the same time, which is impossible. The consequence is plain, because the individual contraries cannot exist unless their common universals exist; therefore it is necessary that the common contraries be in some susceptible thing first; but they are not first in some singular nor in some singulars; therefore they are first in some universal or in some universals; but it is not necessary that they be together in some universals, because it is possible that the singulars in which they are **{2.120}** singular accidents be of the same most specific species. For example, this intellectual soul has science with respect to some conclusion, and another intellectual soul has error with respect to the same conclusion; then science in general, which precisely regards this conclusion, and the error in general contrary to it, are not subjectively in diverse universals as to these intellectual souls; therefore they will be subjectively in the same universal, and consequently some contraries are together in the same subject first.

51. There is a confirmation because, according to them, contrariety is found first between universals, therefore repugnance and opposition are too; therefore contrary universals will in no way be able to be in the same subject first, which however would follow if the aforesaid opinion were true.

52. Likewise, it would follow that a universal thing would be first and per se changeable, because that which first and per se receives a thing subjectively truly changes; but according to this opinion, it is necessary to posit that a universal nature first and per se receives a universal accident, because it is its first subject; therefore it changes first. The consequent is false because, according to everyone, acts and operations and changes are of singulars first and not universals.

53. Likewise, a certain absurdity would follow in theology, that something intrinsic and essential to Christ would be damned and wretched both with the misery of guilt and with the misery of punishment, because the nature common to Christ and to other men is informed by beatitude in common as well as by the misery in common of both guilt and punishment. **{2.121}** Likewise, the same thing would then be in diverse places at the same time. Many other absurdities follow on this opinion that, because of its irrationality and absurdity, would not need to be adduced against it, as neither against what was said before, save because it was the opinion of many and still perhaps is posited by many.<sup>23</sup>

54. This last point is confirmed, because when there are in something two really distinct things informed by contraries, the whole is not denominated more by one of those contraries than by the other; therefore if the human nature, existing universal, of the essence of Christ is informed with the misery both of guilt and of punishment, and it is certain that something that is

<sup>22</sup> 'Sixth' because the previous paragraph contains three arguments, the third, fourth, and fifth, but the terms 'fourth' and 'fifth' are replaced with 'and' and 'again'.

<sup>23</sup> Note by the editors: For opinions about universals current in Ockham's day cf. Walter Burleigh's *Tractate on Universals*.

of the essence of Christ is informed with beatitude, then Christ will no more be denominated formally blessed than wretched, which is absurd.

55. There is a confirmation, because everything essential in Christ is united with the Divine Word; but nothing united with the Divine Word is damned or wretched; therefore no such universal nature that is receptive of contraries, namely beatitude and wretchedness, is in Christ.

56. If you say it is not the intention of the Philosopher [2.119] that every substance is susceptible of contraries but only first substance, on the contrary: just as there are universals of substances so there are universals of accidents; therefore whiteness and blackness in general are in some subject or subjects first; but they are not first in singulars; therefore they are first in universals; therefore etc. **{2.122}** The assumption is plain, because as a singular accident is to a singular subject, so is a common accident to a common subject; therefore as a singular accident is in a singular subject, so a common accident is in a common subject, and consequently if the singular be susceptible of contraries, the most specific species will be susceptible of contraries.

#### Opinion of the Author

57. Therefore I say in another way to the question that nothing really distinct from singular things and intrinsic to them is universal or common to them, because such a thing would only need to be posited to save the essential predication of one thing of another, or to save science about things, and definitions of things, which reasons Aristotle intimates [*Metaphysics* 12.4.1078b27-34] for the opinion of Plato. But the first is not valid, because, by the very fact that it is posited as intrinsic to the thing and distinct really from the singular thing, it must be part of the thing; but a part cannot be predicated essentially of a thing, just as neither is matter or form predicated essentially of a composite; therefore if it is predicated essentially of a thing, it must be that it not supposit for itself but for the singular thing. But such a supposition can be saved by positing that something be predicated that is not the whole thing nor a part of the thing; therefore, to save such predication it is not necessary to posit that such a predicate is another thing and yet intrinsic to the thing. For example, that this predication ‘man is an animal’ or ‘Socrates is **{2.123}** an animal’ be essential and per se in the first mode and in the ‘what’ – this can be as saved by positing that the predicate is neither the subject really nor a part of the subject really as by positing that the predicate is an essential part of the subject. Because if it be posited that the predicate is an essential part of the subject, I ask: what is denoted by the proposition? Either that the subject be essentially the predicate itself, and this is impossible because a whole is never essentially or really its part. Or there is denoted that that which is truly man is something which is truly animal, that is to say that that for which ‘man’ supposits is the same thing for which ‘animal’ supposits, however much the predicate that supposits not be that for which it supposits in the proposition. But the whole of this can equally well be saved by positing that the predicate is not the subject nor its part as by positing that it is its part, because it is equally possible that something extrinsic to something supposit for it as that its part supposit for it; therefore to save this predication it is not necessary to posit that a common predicable of something be intrinsic to it.

58. There is a confirmation, because in this proposition ‘man is an animal’, the terms either supposit for themselves or they do not. If they do, then this proposition would be false, because these terms are distinct and one is not the other and, according to the above reported opinion and according to truth, if they do not supposit for themselves then for things other than

themselves, and so it can belong to something extrinsic just as to something intrinsic to supposit for something other than itself, therefore etc.

59. Nor on account of the second [2.122, sc. ‘to save science about things’] is it necessary to posit it, for the same reason, because in order to have a real science it suffices to have propositions per se **{2.124}** in the first and second mode, which can be had without such other thing, as will be made clear when responding to some of the arguments, and it was proved in the first reason [2.122, 134], therefore etc. Nor is it necessary to posit such a thing on account of the third [2.122], for the same reason, as will be plain later [2.127-131].

60. This can be made persuasive with some logical reasons. First, because that which is universally denied of some genus is not a thing per se contained under that genus, such as if this be true, ‘no animal is *a*’, *a* will not be per se contained under animal; but of such a genus, namely the most general genus of substance, any such universal whatever is universally denied. For this is simply true ‘no substance is *a*’ – let *a* be the universal that is signified by animal or that supposits for that universal – and so about anything else; therefore no universal is a thing really contained under the genus of substance. The major is plain, because a genus is truly predicated of everything contained per se under that genus. The minor is plain, because I take the thing imported by animal, according to you, and let it be *a*; then this is true: no substance is *a* because no incorporeal substance is *a*; similarly no corporeal substance is *a*. This last assertion is plain because no inanimate body is *a*; similarly, no animate body is *a*. This last is plain because no insensible animate body is *a*; similarly no sensible animate body is *a*. This last assertion is plain, because no man is *a*, no **{2.125}** ass is *a*, and so on about all species contained under sensible animate body, therefore no sensible body is *a*. And this argument holds through the rule of the Philosopher, *Topics* 2.4.111a33-34, 4.1.121a26-36: Of whatever every species of some genus is denied, of that same thing is the genus denied. Therefore if this be true ‘no substance is *a*’, *a* is not per se contained under that most general genus.

61. Further, from a per se inferior to a superior the consequence is good, namely when superior and inferior supposit for the things contained [sc. under them], although it not follow when they supposit for themselves. So there follows: man is a species therefore animal is a species; I ask therefore how ‘animal’ supposits: either personally, and then this is false, even according to them, because no animal is a species; or simply, and then it is false because then animal supposits for the common thing (according to them), namely for itself, and that common thing is not the most specific species but a genus.

62. Further it follows: every animal is corruptible per se and generable per se, therefore this thing (pointing to the universal thing imported by man) is per se corruptible, and the same way about all most specific universals contained under animal. The consequent is false, therefore the antecedent is, and consequently this would be false ‘every animal is per se corruptible’, which however no one denies, because for the same reason this would have to be denied ‘all body is movable’, and consequently this ‘every man is per se **{2.126}** capable of laughter’, and universally every proposition in which a property is predicated of its subject with the note of per-se-ity would be false, which is absurd. The first consequence is plain, because from a distributed superior term to any per se inferior term, which is a thing contained under it, the consequence is good. If it be said that a superior is not distributed for all per se inferiors but only for singulars, not for universals, on the contrary: every superior is distributed for the things that it is immediately related to; therefore since those universals for you are more immediate to the superior, it will be distributed first for them.

63. Besides, a genus is univocally predicated of a universal thing and a singular thing, because if not it is predicated of them equivocally, which they deny; therefore it is distributed equally for one thing and for the other, because without reason is it said that it is distributed for one thing per se contained under it and not for another. For with the same facility I will say that it is distributed precisely for universal things as for things that are immediately contained under a genus, and not for singulars. Similarly, a reason whereby one universal is not distributed for such contents is a reason whereby another is not; therefore being is not distributed for other universals but only for singulars, and consequently by virtue of the words this would be false, 'some being is universal', which is denied.

64. Further, if this is true, 'the most specific species is substance', either substance supposits simply or personally; if simply then this [statement] will be false, because then the most specific species would be the most general genus; if personally, it will still be false, because then {2.127} it supposits for supposits and for singulars, and consequently the most specific species would be some singular. Therefore, I say that there is no such thing that is universal and intrinsic to the things it is common to.

#### To the Arguments of the Opinion Imposed on the Subtle Doctor

65. To the first argument for the other opinion [2.101-102]: when it is taken that definition is first of substance, I say that a definition's being of something first can be understood in two ways. Either that it is of that of which the definition is first and adequately predicated, so that the thing defined and the definition convert; and in this way definition is not first of substance, because of no substance is such definition first and adequately predicated. But a definition in this way is first of some single term convertible with the definition, although this term not really be that definition. But what this term is will be stated later [2.271-289, q.8]. In another way can it be understood that a definition is of something first, namely because it is something of which the parts are first expressed by such definition. And this can be understood in two ways, because 'first', like any superlative, can be understood positively or negatively. If in the first way, I still say that of nothing is a definition first, because nothing is first definable; because there is nothing whose parts ought to be expressed save a singular, and the parts of one singular are not expressed by a definition before the parts of another are. In the second way I say that definition is first of substance, because the parts of substance are expressed first by a definition. And when {2.128} it is said [2.101] that 'a definition is not first of a singular substance', I say that this is true in the first way, because of no singular substance is a definition first or adequately predicated. However in this last [i.e. second] way I do say that a definition is first of singular substance, because the parts of it are first expressed by a definition, nor is such definition per se truly predicated of any other supposit. For example, this is one definition 'rational animal'. This definition is first of this term 'man', because it is predicated of this term first and adequately, because of nothing is it predicated save of what this term 'man' is predicated of; and of everything of which this term 'man' is predicated, when it has personal supposition, is this definition truly predicated, if it supposit personally. And therefore this definition and thing defined convert, because 'some things being convertible' is this: that of whatever one is predicated the other is too and conversely, if they supposit personally; because about convertible terms it is always necessary that something be predicated of one of them suppositing otherwise than personally which is not predicated of the other, and conversely. For example, man and capable of laughter are convertible, and yet capable of laughter is a property of man

and man is not a property of man. So therefore this definition ‘rational animal’ is first of this term ‘man’, parts of whom however are not expressed by the definition. In a second way this {2.129} definition is of no one first, because by this definition only the parts of Socrates and Plato are expressed, for, just as nothing is a rational animal save Socrates and Plato and so on of other singulars, so the parts of no one else are expressed by this definition, and yet the parts of Socrates are not expressed before those of Plato nor conversely; therefore of no one are the parts expressed first, namely such that the parts of someone be expressed before the parts of anyone else. In a third way the parts of Socrates are first expressed by this definition, and likewise the parts of Plato, because of no one else are the parts expressed first. And so, by thus understanding the first defined thing, I say that Socrates is the first defined thing, and likewise Plato, and so of any man whatever, because of anything such is this definition truly predicated; and it is not truly predicated of any other term suppositing for itself but only of those that supposit for singular men. Hence, if in this proposition ‘man is a rational animal’ man were to supposit for something other than for a singular man, it would be simply false; and so nothing imaginable is a rational animal save this man or that man, and so on of the other singulars; and consequently for the same reason are the real parts of no one expressed by this definition save the parts of this man and of that man and so on of the other singulars.

66. If it be said: definition and thing defined are the same thing, but this term ‘man’ is not the same thing as this definition, therefore this term is not what is first defined.

67. Further, of no singular are the parts expressed first by a definition, because definition is the principle of knowing perfectly {2.130} that whose parts are expressed first by the definition; but of no singular are the parts perfectly known by the definition, because known no more of one singular than of another, so either of none or of any of them; but it is certain it is not of any; therefore of none.

68. Besides, the Philosopher says [2.101] that definition is first of substance, and he says that a singular substance is not defined, and he is not equivocating, therefore another substance which is not a singular is being defined.

69. To the first of these [2.129] I say that definition and defined are never the same thing; for just as they are not the same term, so they are not the same thing. Yet this notwithstanding, they supposit for the same thing and precisely for the same thing; nor is any thing signified first and principally by one without being signified by the other; nor is anything extrinsic connoted by either of them. And in this way do authors understand it [Boethius *On Porphyry* 2 ch. on genus: “For every description or definition must be equal with that which is defined”] provided they say that definition and defined are one thing, namely because they have a single signified thing, which meaning even some modern authors [Aquinas, *Sent.* I d.25 q.1 a.1 ad2], although some of them do not notice it, sufficiently express when they frequently say that definition and defined import the same thing and that they signify the same thing, and consequently they are not the same thing just as {2.131} neither are two signs or importings one signified or imported thing.

70. To the second [2.129] I say that a definition is not always the principle of knowing whatever it is the definition of, because sometimes, as will be made clear later [d.3 q.5; 2.478], that of which there is a definition can be perfectly known without any definition; but it is very true that, when the definition is had, the parts of anything of which it is the definition can be known to be in that of which it is the definition. For example: when diverse men are known and their diverse circumstances known, eventually is this definition ‘rational animal’ received, by knowing namely that every man is a rational animal; and after this definition is had by anyone,

if to him be presented some man of whom before he had no knowledge, such a one knows, by virtue of the knowledge of the aforesaid definition, that this man, whom he did not know in himself save confusedly (because he did not distinctly apprehend any part of him), has parts really distinct, namely body and intellective soul. And this he would not know unless he had and knew that the said definition is the definition common to every man, and so a definition in this way leads to knowledge in some way distinct of the singular thing of which it is first (in the last way made clear above, 2.128f.), but not without coexisting confused knowledge of that individual thing. Not however properly is that singular thing distinctly known by the definition but improperly, namely because the things predicable of him are known which signify the distinct parts of that singular thing; but in what way will be stated later [2.138; d.3 q.5, 2.478ff.].

71. To the third [2.130] I say that it is not unfitting that the Philosopher equivocates in diverse places, especially when in one {2.132} place he sufficiently explains that he is equivocating. Or it can be said to the intention of the Philosopher and of the Commentator in *Metaphysics* 7 in diverse places [Averroes, *On Aristotle's Metaphysics* 7 t.11], that they frequently take substance for the name or term signifying substance. And then I say that a definition is first of substance, that is, first and adequately predicated of the common name or term importing precisely the singular substance; and in this way, as was said [2.127ff.], a definition is not first of singular substance.

72. To the first confirmation [2.102, cf. 128ff.] I say that no thing in the genus of substance is definable in the first mode but in the third, and I say that in its definition should not be put any substance but terms precisely signifying substances should be put; and in this way are predicable substantial terms spoken of, namely predicable terms importing substances alone; and thus does the Commentator call predicable terms substantial, Averroes *On Aristotle's Metaphysics* 7 comm. 11, where he says that only “three predicables are substantial, namely genus, difference, and definition.” That is: whatever is predicable of substance, and imports only substance, is either genus or difference or definition, which however, namely genus and difference and definition, are not substances but are only signs importing substances; and these are put in the definition and not the substances imported by genus and difference, because no substance {2.133} is imported by this genus ‘animal’ save only some singular, and yet no such singular is put in a definition.

73. To the second confirmation [2.102-103] by the same point: that the genus and difference that are placed in the definition of a species are not substances, but they do precisely import substances without connoting any accident; yet they are not of the essence of species. But it does not for this reason follow that such a definition is through an addition, for a definition is not said to be through an addition because something is placed in the definition that is not of the essence of what is defined, but because something is placed there which imports and signifies something outside the essence of what is defined [Aristotle, *Topics* III.5.119a3], just as this definition ‘whiteness is color diffusive of sight’ is through an addition, because this term ‘sight’ placed here is outside the total essence of whiteness, and it imports something outside the total essence of whiteness. And when it is said [2.102-103] that “according to the Philosopher substance is only defined by substances,” I say that this is to be understood as follows: that substance is not defined save by predicables importing precisely substances and not any accident.

74. To the third confirmation [2.103, cf. 128f.] I say that a definition is predicated of the thing defined in the first way stated not for itself but for the thing defined in the third way

stated, because in this proposition ‘every man {2.134} is a rational animal’ the subject is defined in the first way and it does not supposit for itself but for the singular, which is defined in the third way.

75. To the second principal argument [2.103] I say that a real science is not always of things as of those that are immediately known but of others only suppositing for things. For understanding which, and because of the many things said before and to be said (on account of some who are unexercised in logic), it needs to be known that any science, whether real or rational, is only of propositions as of that which is known, because only propositions are known. Now a proposition, according to Boethius, *On the Book of Interpretation*, ch.1 ‘On Signs’, has a threefold being, namely in the mind, in speech, and in writing, that is to say: some proposition is only conceived and understood, some is uttered, and some is written. And so if there were some other signs instituted for signifying in the same way as spoken sounds and letters are, the proposition would be in them just as in the former. And therefore, just as an uttered proposition is truly composed of spoken sounds, and a written proposition is truly composed of written letters, so a proposition only conceived is composed of what is conceived or understood, or of the concepts or understandings of the soul. And therefore just as every spoken sound can be part of a spoken proposition, so can everything understood be part of a proposition in the mind, according to one opinion, or a concept, according to another opinion [see further d.2 q.8, 2.266-292]. And just as a spoken sound that is part of an uttered proposition {2.135} can have multiple supposition – namely material and personal and simple, as is plain in these propositions uttered and heard in fleshly ears ‘man is a one-syllable spoken sound’<sup>24</sup>, wherein the spoken sound is taken materially, because the spoken sound there according to which the proposition is true stands and supposits for itself; similarly ‘man runs’: it stands there personally, because it supposits for men themselves not for the spoken sound, because the sound cannot run; but in this ‘man is a species’, the spoken sound supposits simply for something common – in the same way can a like part of the proposition in the mind. And, by circumscribing every spoken sound, because it is altogether of no tongue (in the way Augustine says, *On the Trinity* 15.10 n.19, that there is a word that is of no tongue), this part, I say, of such proposition can have simple supposition, and then it supposits for something common; or it can have personal supposition, and then it stands and supposits for the very things signified, if they signify things; or it can have material supposition, and then it stands and supposits for itself.

76. Thereby I say to the argument that just as this uttered proposition ‘every man is capable of laughter’ is truly known – for as it is true so is it truly known, because everything true can be known, and none but a madman can deny but that some uttered propositions are true and some false (for who would say he never heard {2.136} any lie with his bodily ears?), and nothing can be heard with the bodily ears save a sound, just as nothing can be seen with the bodily eyes save color or light, therefore some propositions composed precisely of sounds are true, as are these: every man is an animal, every man is capable of laughter, every species is predicated of many things differing numerically in the ‘what it is’, genus is predicated of many things differing in species, and so on of other things that can be known – so a proposition in the mind which is of no language is truly known. But now it so is that the science of some such uttered propositions is real and of others it is rational, and yet these known things and all parts of them are truly spoken sounds. Because, however, parts of some spoken sounds supposit and stand, not for themselves, namely for spoken sounds, but for things outside, namely for the subjects, therefore is the science of those propositions called real; but other parts of other propositions stand for the

<sup>24</sup> The Latin says two syllables, since the Latin for ‘man’ is ‘homo’.



concepts themselves of the mind, therefore can the science of those things be called rational or logical. And of these uttered propositions, ‘man is a single syllable sound’, ‘animal is a three-syllable sound’, the science can be called grammatical. And yet all such propositions and all parts of them are spoken sounds, and they are only said to belong to diverse sciences because the parts of diverse sciences supposit for diverse things, because some supposit for things, some for concepts of the mind, and some for spoken sounds themselves. Therefore it is proportionably the same way as to propositions in the mind, which are truly known by us for this state of life, that all terms of those propositions are only concepts {2.137} and are not the very substances outside. Because however the terms of some propositions stand and supposit personally, namely for the very things outside (as in these sorts of cases: everything movable is partly in the term from which etc., every man is capable of laughter, every triangle has three etc., and so on of others), therefore of such propositions there is said to be real science. But the terms of other propositions supposit simply, namely for the concepts themselves (as in these cases: every demonstration is from things first and true etc., man is a species, and so on of others), therefore of such propositions there is said to be rational science. Therefore it makes no difference to real science whether the terms of a known proposition be things outside the soul or only be in the soul, provided they stand and supposit for the very things outside; and so it is not necessary, on account of real science, to posit some such real universals really distinct from singular things.

77. Hereby to the form of the argument I say that science’s being about things can be understood in three ways. Either because the thing itself is known and in this way no science is about substantial things, most of all because nothing is known save a complex [sc. a proposition]; but a complex is not outside the soul save perhaps in a vocal sound or a like sign. In another way, that things be part of that which is known, and thus it is not necessary that a real science be about things outside. In a third way, that things be that for which the parts of what is known supposit, and thus is real science about things, but not about universal things because for them supposition is not made; for in this proposition in the mind ‘each body is composed of singular matter and form’ supposition is not made for any universal body, because {2.138} no such body, even if it existed, is thus composed of singular matter and singular form. But science is about singular things in this way, because the terms supposit for the very singular things. And in this way the Philosopher does not deny that science is of singulars, but he does in the second way, because the terms of known propositions are not singular things but are the universals that science in the second mode is about, because universals are the terms of propositions known. And if it sometimes be found that science is about universal things, it must be understood that it is about universals predicable for things. Briefly then to the intention of the Philosopher it must be said that real science is distinguished from rational science not by this, that real science is about things such that the things themselves are the propositions known or parts of the propositions known and rational science is not thus about things; but by this, that the parts, namely the terms of the propositions known by real science, stand and supposit for things, but not so the terms of the propositions known by rational science, but those terms stand and supposit for other things. An example is plain about these, ‘every man is capable of laughter’, ‘every man is susceptible of discipline’, and so on of others that are known by real science; and about these, ‘a genus is predicated in the what of things different in species’, ‘the most special species is only predicated of individuals’, and so on of others.<sup>25</sup>

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<sup>25</sup> Sc. “that are known by rational science.”

78. To the third [2.103-104] I say that this vocal sound ‘man’ does not signify a thing first, if the ‘first’ be taken positively; but if it be taken negatively, then I say that it does signify a thing first, because it signifies first any singular thing at all of which it is predicated. **{2.139}** And if it be said that then it would be an equivocal vocal sound, because an equivocal vocal sound is that which signifies several things equally first, I reply that a vocal sound’s signifying several things first happens in three ways. Either because it is in such way imposed on one as if it were not imposed on another and is imposed by two impositions, as in the case of this noun ‘Socrates’ imposed on two men, because the one imposing this name ‘Socrates’ on this man has thought nothing of the other man, and in the same way he who is imposing it on the other man has thought nothing of this man; and such a vocal sound is equivocal, and is called equivocal by chance. In a second way it happens that some vocal sound signifies several things equally first, because it is imposed on many equally but by one imposition, such that he who imposed it was no more intending that it would signify this thing rather than another; and if nothing more be done, the vocal sound can be called equivocal, not however by chance but in some way deliberately. Just as if someone impose this name ‘Peter’ precisely on these three men, and this by one imposition (which however is equivalent to several impositions), then this name is not equivocal by chance, nor is it properly univocal; because to any of the vocal sounds there univocally corresponds one concept convertible with itself. But no concept is convertible with this vocal sound, because an ultimate concept is either specific, and consequently common to all individuals of the same idea, or is a concept proper to some individual, and consequently none is in between to be precisely common to these individuals and not to others. And so this vocal sound is not properly univocal but equivocal, and this deliberately, and this is because it is imposed on them at the same time by definite deliberation. In a third way it happens that some **{2.140}** vocal sound equally first signifies several things because it is imposed in one imposition, for it is imposed by one imposition on all those to which a determinate concept possessed by the imposer is common, so that they are ordered signs as it were; not that the vocal sound first signify the concept, but because it is imposed for signifying first and precisely all that of which the concept is predicated, so that, if the concept be predicated of some things at one time and of others at another time, the vocal sound will in the same way change what it signifies. And such vocal sound, signifying in such way several things equally first, is simply univocal. Such is this vocal sound ‘man’, and therefore it is simply univocal because the one imposing this vocal sound ‘man’ intended that it would signify everything of which a determinate concept of the mind is predicated, such that, when this concept is predicated of a thing, that then the vocal sound would signify it, and when not, not.

79. To the fourth [2.104] I say that, according to one opinion, the intellect in understanding man, not in understanding some singular man, does not understand a thing of the genus of substance, but only understands a certain concept of the mind (what this concept is, however, will be stated later [d.2 q.8]). But according to another opinion any singular man truly is understood, not with proper knowledge nor equivalent knowledge but common only.

80. To the fifth [2.104] I say that something’s being the adequate object of some power can be understood in two ways. Either because it is something that can be apprehended by the power first, such that nothing is apprehended **{2.141}** by the power save under the idea of that something; and in this way I say that nothing is the adequate object of any power, and especially the sensitive power, because equally first is this color apprehended by sight as that one, and nothing is apprehended prior to this color or that one, and so on of other sense powers. In a second way can something be said to be the adequate object of some power, not by virtue of

speech, but according as it is equivalent to one signified act, which will be this: there is something of which is first and adequately predicated that it is an object of such power, or is apprehensible by such power. In this way there is some adequate object of any sense power, because there is something such of which is predicated adequately and first that it is an object of such power, and yet it is, in the truth of the matter, not an object of such power, nor can it, either per se or per accidens, be apprehended by such power. For example, this common thing ‘color’ is that of which being apprehensible by the visual power is first and adequately predicated, because this common thing ‘color’ is predicated of all that which is apprehensible by the visual power and of such alone, and this according to the opinion which posits that light is not apprehended per se,<sup>26</sup> about which opinion whether it is true or false matters not to the purpose; and yet this common thing ‘color’ can neither per se nor per accidens be apprehended by the visual power, because the visual power is apprehensive only of a singular thing or at least is not apprehensive {2.142} of the genus. And when it is said that ‘nothing is object of a sense power save a true thing’, one must say that this is true by virtue of speech; however, according as it is equivalent to this signified act, ‘of nothing is the object of the sense power predicated save of a true thing’, namely a thing which is outside the soul, it is simply false; because predicated of this common thing ‘color’ is that it is the object of the visual power, thus saying ‘every color is visible’; and yet this common thing is not a true thing outside the soul; and the cause is because to be the object of the visual power is not predicated of that common thing for itself but for its inferiors; and therefore in such proposition it has personal not simple supposition; for this ‘color is visible’ is not true save for a singular color.

81. To the sixth [2.105] I say that a real property is taken in two ways. In one way for something that is a true thing and an accident of another thing. In another way it is called a real property properly; for it is properly called a property because it is predicable in the second mode of speaking per se, and it is called real because it is a property importing a true thing outside the soul, yet it is not a thing outside the soul. In the first way I say that the subject of a real property is a true thing and a true singular thing, and thus is a property no more predicated of many things than the subject of it is, which is a singular thing. In the second way the subject of a real property is not a thing outside the soul but is a certain concept of the mind suppositing for things outside the soul. As is plain in this proposition, ‘every man is {2.143} capable of laughter’, the subject is not a thing outside the soul but is a certain concept of the mind suppositing precisely for singular men themselves; because for the truth of this proposition it precisely suffices that ‘capable of laughter’ be truly predicated of any particular man, nor is it required that it be predicated of any universal thing, because then never could such a universal be sufficiently drawn by induction from its singulars, which is against true logic.

82. From this can an argument be made for the principal conclusion, because all universal propositions are equally drawn by induction from their singulars; but there is some universal proposition that is sufficiently drawn by induction from its singulars such that the predicate is repugnant to anything other than singulars, as this proposition, ‘every man is a singular and one in number’; therefore to verify such universal propositions on the part of the thing singulars suffice, and so such universal things are posited altogether in vain; and the total cause is because in such propositions the terms supposit personally and not simply, that is, they supposit for singulars and not for themselves.

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<sup>26</sup> Cf. Henry of Ghent, *Summa* a.24 q.6: “For just as the eye conceives at once color and light, and color only under the idea of light, although it judge more of color than of light, because the grossness of color overshadows the idea of light.”

83. And if it be said: this proposition is true, ‘man is first capable of laughter’ – either then according as ‘man’ has personal supposition, and then it is simply false, because no man is first capable of laughter; or according as it supposits for the concept, and then too it is false, because then is denoted that the concept is first capable of laughter, which is manifestly false, because this concept is neither first nor secondarily able to laugh; therefore it is necessary that it be true according as it supposits for some middle between the singular thing and the concept:

84. **{2.144}** I reply as was said to the fifth argument [2.140ff.], that this is false by virtue of the words, ‘man is first capable of laughter’, just as also this, ‘something is the first and adequate object of any power’; but it is true according to the understanding of those who speak correctly, because they understand by it one signified act, namely this one, ‘of man is being capable of laughter first predicated’, and in this signified act ‘man’ has simple supposition and it supposits for the concept, because of this concept is capable of laughter first predicated, not for itself but for singular things; and therefore in the corresponding exercised act, which will be this ‘some man is capable of laughter’, ‘man’ will have personal supposition. Just as in this signified act ‘genus is predicated of species’, ‘genus’ supposits for the concept, because the concept of genus is predicated of the concept of species, not for itself but for things; and therefore in the corresponding exercised act (which ought not to be exercised thus ‘species is genus’ but thus ‘man is an animal’) the terms will have personal supposition.

85. To the first confirmation [2.105] I say that sometimes the property is in many things through the common nature outside the soul, because there is something the same in them remaining in them successively; but sometimes it is said to be in them by the common nature, not by informing but by predication, because it is predicated first of the common nature, that is, of something common to their natures, and in the second of those two ways does the Philosopher understand it, about which elsewhere [d.2 q.6, 2.198ff.].

86. **{2.145}** Through the same point to the second confirmation, that the numerically same transparency does not remain unless the numerically same subject remain, because according even to them numerically one accident is first in numerically one subject.

87. To the seventh [2.105-106] I say that a natural agent intends in acting a true singular thing, because it intends that which is per se and first produced, but a singular thing is per se and first produced, therefore etc. And when it is said that it does not more intend one singular thing than another, since it respects all equally, I reply that it intends one determinately, namely the one that be determinately produce. Hence because the same thing is intended by the prior agent and by the posterior, therefore because the first agent intends some one thing determinately, that is intended by the natural agent; neither is any singular thing whatever equally respected by the natural agent, just as neither is anything whatever indifferently produced. About this however more will be said in the fourth book [Ockham, *Sent.* 4 q.1].

88. And if it be shamelessly said against this, and against other things aforesaid, that this is true, ‘someone promises he will give another some horse’, then I ask: either he promises the other some singular thing, or a universal thing, or a concept. Not a singular thing, because not one singular more than another, and so either he promises no horse, and thus he could keep the promise by giving no horse, or he promises some horse or other, and so he could not keep the promise save by giving some horse or other. If he promise a universal thing, the proposed conclusion is got. If a concept, this is not true, because he promises **{2.146}** a true thing; likewise, then he could fulfill the promise not by giving some real horse but only a certain concept.

89. This cavil would not need to be put here save because some,<sup>27</sup> reckoning they know logic, ponder such puerilities, because of which they posit many absurdities about the supposition of terms; but to treat of this would be too prolix and tedious, therefore I dismiss it and say that this man promises a true singular thing, because in this proposition, ‘this man promises another a horse’ the ‘horse’ supposits personally for singular horses; hence such a one would never fulfill his promise if he gave something universal unless he gave some particular horse. Hence, just as he, by saying in this way, ‘I promise you one particular horse’, promises a singular thing, so by saying in this way, ‘I promise you a horse.’ And when it is said that he does not more promise one singular thing than another so either he promises none or any at all, it does not follow, but there is a fallacy of figure of speech by changing one mode of suppositing to another, just as by {2.147} arguing thus: ‘every man is a singular man, but he is not more one singular man than another, so every man is any singular man at all or none’, because in the first part ‘singular man’ supposits confusedly only, and in the second it supposits confusedly and distributively. So is it in the matter at hand: in this proposition, ‘I promise you a horse’ the ‘horse’ supposits only confusedly or in some like way (because it does not supposit confusedly and distributively), and it is possible to infer any singular at all under disjunction, so that the consequent is about a disjunct predicate and not about a disjunctive proposition.<sup>28</sup> For it does well follow ‘I promise you a horse, therefore I promise you this horse or that one or that one’ and so on about all horses present and future, but the disjunctive proposition does not follow; for it does not follow, ‘I promise you a horse, therefore I promise you this horse or I promise you that horse’ and so on of the rest. Just as it does well follow ‘every man is an animal, therefore every man is this animal or that animal’ and so on of each singular, but the disjunctive proposition does not follow ‘every man is an animal, therefore every man is this animal or every man is that animal’ and so on of the rest. Thus is it in many such cases, because often the predicate term has confused supposition only, or some like supposition as to the predicates, without a distributive sign preceding. However, whether by virtue of the words it have confused supposition only or not, I do not care for the present; and therefore let these matters be omitted, because they belong to logicians [cf. Ockham *Summa Logica* p.1 ch.2, ed. Boehner pp.197ff.]. Ignorance, however, of these things causes many difficulties {2.148} in theology and in other real sciences, because if these and the like puerilities were perfectly known they would be very easy, or have entirely no difficulty.

90. To the eighth [2.106] I say that the most general genus is a concept of the mind; in what way, however, it is one genus will be clear in the following [2.149ff.]

91. To the ninth [2.106] I say that Porphyry means that a species is one collective of many things into one nature, not real nature, but into one thing that imports the natures of many things; and therefore it is called one nature by signification, because it is one thing importing

<sup>27</sup> The editors note: “Such puerilities” are weighed by Walter Burley in his *Tractate on Suppositions* (British Museum codex Roy.12 F. XIXff. 130ra-133va). This tractate was probably composed in 1302. Cf. Walter Burley *Longer Treatise On the Purity of the Art of Logic*, ed. Boehner, pp. xiii, 2. To the words of Ockham, “This cavil would not need to be put here save because some, reckoning they know logic...” Walter seems to respond in equal fashion in his *Commentary on Aristotle’s Physics* I t.5 (ed. Venice 1589 col.16): “These reasons, however, would not need to be put here save because some who assert they know logic above all mortals respond to this reason and say that by saying this, ‘I promise you a cow’, I promise you one singular thing outside the soul...”. Cf. also A. Maier ‘Handschriftliches zu Wilhelm Ockham und Walter Burley’, *Archivum Franciscanum Historicum* XLVIII, 1951, 234 n.2.

<sup>28</sup> Sc. the consequent is not the disjunctive proposition ‘I promise you this particular horse or I promise you that particular horse’ but the disjunct predicate ‘I promise you some horse or other’.

many things. And in the same way are many men one man by participation of species – not numerically one man nor one common man, because even according to these people no man is a common man; but Porphyry means that of many men contained under one species (because some other participation is not possible) one man is predicated, that is, one term of which man is predicated when ‘man’ supposit simply, but if it be predicated of several men it supposit personally.

92. To the tenth [2.106-107] it must be said that because the Philosopher is logician in the book of *Categories* he treats principally of nouns and terms of propositions, and so he frequently attributes to the term of a proposition that which is attributed to the thing and conversely. And the reason is because a pure logician does not have to say whether the universals that are the terms of propositions are things outside or things only in {2.149} the soul or in speech or in writing, and therefore he does not distinguish. I say therefore that his understanding in the same place is this, that of things that are, that is, of nouns or terms importing things that are truly outside the soul and are true things, some are said of a subject, that is of first substance, because the very terms themselves are said of first substance, not for themselves but for first substance itself, and yet they are not in a subject, that is they do not import a thing existing in a subject; and in converse way certain things are said of a subject not for themselves but for the thing and are in a subject, that is, they import a thing existing in a subject. And so in the signified act the term always has the same supposition, and yet in the two corresponding exercised acts it has varying supposition, because in one act it has simple or material supposition and in the other personal supposition.

93. To the eleventh [2.107] I say that there is not there a division of anything into distinct things when it is divided into first and second substance, but there is a division into those that are placed in a categorial line, some of which can be real things and some are simply not things that are substances. And the cause of this is because substance, which is the most general category, is predicated of all such things per se and in the ‘what’, although of some it may be predicated per se, namely of things, if a thing be predicated. But of some things, namely of concepts, it is predicated not for itself but for things, because in such propositions the terms do not supposit for themselves and simply, {2.150} but for the singulars themselves and personally. For example, in this proposition ‘every man is an animal’ and in this ‘every animal is a body’ and in this ‘every body is a substance’, the terms do not supposit for themselves and simply but for the very singulars and personally; and yet any at all of these [propositions] is per se in the first mode, and similarly of any of these [terms] is predicated this term ‘substance’. In the same way and for this reason these terms are put in predicamental line, and these terms only or similar ones are disposed according to superior and inferior.<sup>29</sup> And so the division of substance, which is the most general genus, is into those things that are predicated of many and into those that are not predicated of many.

94. To the confirmation [2.107]: that species are said more of substance than genus is, because things more imperfect are imported by genus than by species (at least some species), also because they are closer in predicamental line to the individual itself,<sup>30</sup> which alone is a

<sup>29</sup> The sense seems to be that they are all in the same category (substance) but are above or below each other in the same categorial or predicamental line (some being primary substances, some secondary), as the next sentence in the text indicates. See also next note.

<sup>30</sup> The individual is simply or first substance (only individuals are real external things, as this man William), the species is next in line as secondary substance (it is the defining part of first substance, as rational animal), and genus is next in line as more general secondary substance (it is part of the defining part of first substance, as animal in rational animal).

thing in that genus, and because of the reasons of the Philosopher that he puts in the same place. And if it be said that the Philosopher marks some properties to be common to first and second substance which can only belong to a thing, as ‘to be susceptible of contraries’, one must say that he says they are common not by real inherence but by true predication, and such things can truly be predicated of concepts, not for themselves but for the things, just as ‘to be an animal’ is truly predicated of this spoken word ‘man’ when this proposition is uttered ‘man is an animal’, but is not predicated of this spoken word **{2.151}** ‘man’ for itself but for the singular thing for which this spoken word ‘man’ supposits. Hence it is not denoted that this spoken word ‘man’ is an animal but that the thing, which this spoken word signifies, is truly an animal.

95. To the twelfth [2.107] through the same point, that the division is of terms importing true things, because certain are universals, certain are singulars, and they are called things because they are importing true things.

96. To the thirteenth [2.107] I reply that identity is triple: real, because it belongs to things themselves; but numerical identity belongs to one thing alone; specific identity, however, does not belong to one sole individual but belongs to many individuals, so that it is not predicated of any one but of many. And that this is the intention of the Philosopher is plainly manifest, because he says in the same place [*Topics* 1.7.103a8-14]: “In number indeed,” namely are they the same, “of which the names are many, but the thing one, as clothing and vestment. But in species those which, though they are many, are undiffering in species, as man with man and horse with horse; for all these are said to be the same in species which are under the same species. And similarly the same in genus all which are under the same genus, as man and horse.” From which it is plain that the same in species or the same in genus are not said of anything that is not an individual, but they are said of individuals themselves, so that Socrates and Plato are the same in species, and this man is the same in genus as this horse, this is **{2.152}** to say, as Aristotle expounds it [*ibid.*], that Socrates and Plato are contained under the same species, and this man is contained under the same genus under which is contained this horse. And thus I concede that there is some identity less than unity or numerical identity; but such identity is not of any universal but is of the singular themselves taken together, as Socrates and Plato are one in species.

### Response to the Principal Arguments

97. To the first principal argument [2.99-100] I reply that this is false by virtue of the words: universal man and particular man are essentially one; nor does the Commentator intend this, but he intends that they are essentially one because one is essentially predicated of the other and imports the essence of the other, and yet is not really of the essence of the other.

98. To the second [2.100] it must be said that whether universals are incorruptible or not, they are not corruptible things; yet they can be called incorruptible because, according to the intention of Philosopher, being is always predicated of them, so that this is always true ‘man is’, if that proposition be formed; but being is not thus always predicated of any sensible singular according to the intention of the Philosopher, because to any singular pointed to this assertion is contingent, ‘this singular is’.